CHINA ASSIGNMENT

By Karl Lott Rankin



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Preface

THIS ESSAY sketches the development of United States relations with China from the middle of 1949 to the beginning of 1958, as seen from Canton, Hong Kong, Taipei, and during short trips to the United States. It was written abroad, in spare moments, where documentary material often was unavailable. Moreover, I could not know all that was happening behind the scenes in Washington, particularly outside the Department of State. I venture to say, however, that my position during this period of eight and one-half years permitted me to see as much of the whole picture as any American dealing with Chinese affairs.

It will be noted that quotations are very largely from correspondence that I prepared. This need not imply claims to originality for the ideas presented. Many persons in and outside the United States government were thinking, speaking, and writing along similar lines. Still others, no less conscientiously, were developing quite different approaches to the China problem. However, extensive inclusion of material written at the time is the most convenient way of describing the unfolding scene as it appeared to me at successive posts abroad, and without the benefit of hindsight. Some of these excerpts may sound unwarrantedly alarming, or seem to support unduly the side of Nationalist China. This was done deliberately, for my pervading purpose was to assist those in Washington who shared my own sense of urgency about China and the Far East in general and who believed that a positive and active American strategy was indispen-

sable. The milder presentation of so grave a situation could have given comfort in quarters favoring disengagement. With American responsibilities so heavy and widespread, I could not place those with whom I agreed in a position to be told, "What are you worrying about? Our man on the spot doesn't seem alarmed."

A major responsibility of the diplomatist is to interpret to his government the policies and opinions of the country where he is stationed. In so doing he often appears to favor that country more strongly than would be expected from a dispassionate observer. Today, however, the United States is no longer a neutral observer in world affairs. Rather, the task is to determine how a given situation can be exploited in our national interest, which we hope and believe coincides with the best interests of friendly nations everywhere. Particularly in a region where peace is under constant threat, the question is not whether we should support those on our side, but how we can do so most effectively. One of the oldest communist techniques is to discredit our friends in the hope that we may grow weary of supporting them. In this they count on the aid of many Americans, well meaning and otherwise. Unfortunately, even today a substantial minority of our fellow citizens seem not to have progressed in their thinking since the days when isolationism and neutrality were in vogue.

The shortcomings of the government of the Republic of China, now established on Taiwan, are an open book. They have been elaborated, admitted, exaggerated, or belabored by a host of Americans, Chinese, and others. I felt no compulsion to add to these indictments, except as the practical application of our aid programs, or an overriding American interest, might be involved. On balance, the Republic of China was and remains a very great asset to the United States and the free world. A substantial portion of the cream of China is on Taiwan, laboring intelligently and devotedly. They are as keenly aware of their shortcomings, past and present, as any American. Criticizing them needlessly only invites quotations out of context to the detriment of both American and Chinese interests. We cannot be "neutral" in any case.

Our practical task is to keep Nationalist Chinese strategy in harmony with our own to the largest extent possible. Views that seem widely divergent as to the offensive capabilities desirable in

their military establishment usually give way to reasonable compromise after careful and sympathetic discussion. In the economic field, short-term and long-term considerations, as well as the degree of self-sufficiency warranted for the island of Taiwan, also can be harmonized by the exercise of patient effort and good will on both sides. Even on the great issue of mainland China's future, we can share the hope of its eventual liberation from the communists. Meanwhile, American firmness and consistency provide the best hope for preventing the outbreak of large-scale open conflict and for fostering the evolution that will some day bring a united China back into the family of nations.

I take full responsibility for the opinions expressed, although they represent an interpretation of what I believe to have been basic policy under two administrations. Differences between the Department of State and its representatives abroad usually and naturally stem from the greater importance attached to domestic political factors in one case, and to the situation where the diplomat is stationed in the other. In practice, such differences usually relate to tactics, notably timing and emphasis. It is the duty of an official representative in the field to report frankly on the situation in his territory and to make recommendations accordingly. Whether these recommendations can or should be adopted is a matter for higher decision in the light of circumstances at home, and within the limits of political possibilities. The man in the field must try to accept such decisions with good grace.

A popular notion today is that American diplomatic and consular officers abroad simply carry out orders received by teletype or otherwise, which leave them no discretion and no possibility of influencing policy. Yet we also are told that on occasion one or two comparatively junior Foreign Service officers at a critical post have been able to sabotage official Washington policy and redirect it along entirely different lines. The truth, of course, lies in between. An unwritten law in the Foreign Service is: Never ask for instructions from Washington if you can help it. It is presumed that the officer in the field is familiar with official policy; in most cases he is in a better position than anyone else to decide how a given problem should be handled in the light of that policy, and whether circumstances demand that he ask for instructions. His responsibility

sometimes is very great. A mistake is not impossible, and on the rare occasions when damage results, it may be assumed either that the officer stationed abroad had been inadequately informed of recent policy developments, or that those in charge of personnel assignments made an error in selecting him for the post. Despite these risks, our system works far better than that usually followed by authoritarian states, whose representatives dare not take action without specific instructions and are not encouraged to have opinions or to make recommendations.

The officer in charge of a Foreign Service post has wide latitude and freedom in expressing his frank opinions on policy and other matters to the Department of State. I have heard of instances in which ambassadors and others were told to cease and desist, but never having experienced this myself during thirty-four years of foreign service, I must conclude that it rarely happens. There is, of course, a wide difference between expressing one's self confidentially to the Department of State and letting down one's hair before representatives of the press, particularly on a delicate issue at a crucial moment. Under several administrations, I always have felt encouraged to express myself freely on policy in addressing the Department, whether or not my views seemed to diverge from the accepted position.

The following pages doubtless would make more interesting reading if they featured direct quotations from prominent persons on controversial subjects. In so doing, of course, I should be liable to charges of quoting out of context. More important, attention would be diverted from issues to personalities. My effort in this book, as at the time events were taking place, was to present pertinent facts as they were known to me, and to discuss issues frankly but impersonally.

Some repetition is inevitable, even essential, in emphasizing points of particular importance over a period of years. I have tried to reduce iteration to the minimum needed for clarity by including only the more significant passages from despatches, letters, and telegrams, selected in a manner to make footnotes unnecessary. Progressively fewer details have been included in the later chapters, again to minimize tedious repetition. In consequence, the narrative becomes less continuous. Official visits and conferences inevitably

covered much the same ground over and over again. Many different individuals were involved, particularly on the American side, and it was desirable to stimulate everyone's interest in China's problems. But the basic character of these problems did not change. New and significant developments, of course, required interpretation and handling as they occurred. Later chapters deal with such developments, and no pretense is made of presenting anything approaching a complete account. Several volumes would be required to do so.

My hope in preparing this book is that it may contribute in a modest way to a better understanding of China in relation to the national interests of the United States, and thereby help to justify a continuing strategy of active support for our Far Eastern friends in general. A secondary purpose is to portray the magnitude and complexity of the task confronting us today in coordinating United States operations abroad. The steadily increasing scope and dimensions of government in the United States continue to be reflected, unfortunately but perhaps almost inevitably, in the number of American agencies and personnel working abroad. Nevertheless, gratifying progress has been made during recent years in coordinating these activities. I should like to think that my efforts made some small contribution to this result, and hence that the strictures that I directed to Washington over the years may be regarded with tolerance. Despite the incubus of a large and complicated organization, the coordination of American activities on Taiwan and with the various interested agencies in Washington had reached a most satisfactory state during my last years in Taipei. There and elsewhere, our foreign program of political, economic, and military aid had come of age.

Over six years have passed since the end of my China assignment. On a visit to Taiwan in 1962, I was gratified to see that many of the economic, military, and social projects started in earlier years had been brought to completion or were advancing commendably. With a population rapidly approaching twelve million, the island was enjoying an ever rising standard of living. I was glad to find President Chiang in evident good health and spirits. He was as confident as ever in China's future. But basic problems evidently remained. For all the successes of our cooperative effort on Taiwan, the sheer magnitude of Red-held China, and its growing strength, despite

setbacks, served to perpetuate the vital question whether the free world was indeed holding its own in East Asia.

Increasing troubles for the free world in Southeast Asia have underlined anew the vital role of the strong Chinese Nationalist forces in being on Taiwan and other islands. Unquestionably, they have been a major factor in discouraging open and large-scale intervention by Peiping in Vietnam and elsewhere. Had it not been for this potent threat to their flank, the Red Chinese might well have taken over most or all of Southeast Asia, in the absence of intervention by United States forces on a scale approaching that of the Korean War. In contrast to 1950-53, the Chinese Nationalist forces today are well armed and combat ready.

One of the most extensively publicized developments of the past several years has been the increasing friction between Red China and the Soviet Union. Eventual trouble between the two communist giants was not unexpected, although it reached a stage of public altercation rather earlier than had been generally anticipated. Historically, Russia has been China's chief enemy. The Great Wall was built more than 2,000 years ago as a defense against attack from the north and west. Since the end of the sixteenth century, the Russian empire has been expanding eastward, adding territory at China's expense. Outer Mongolia was detached from China and proclaimed a "Peoples' Republic" as recently as 1924. It was inevitable that even a communist China would not relish taking orders from Moscow forever.

Following the usual communist technique, differences between the Soviet Union and Red China have been portrayed as an ideological conflict, whereas in fact they represent a power struggle. Ironically enough, Moscow's intensive military and economic aid to Peiping during the 1950's undoubtedly exacerbated mutual relations. As the Chinese Reds found themselves growing stronger, militarily and industrially, their actions became more independent. At the same time, the Soviets realized that they were creating a Frankenstein, which some day could be a serious rival, and meanwhile might involve them in dangerous and unwanted adventures. No doubt the virtual stoppage of Soviet aid programs has slowed the economic and military progress of communist China, to the relative advantage of its neighbors and the free world in general.

Have the troubles between Moscow and Peiping altered the Far Eastern situation fundamentally? I think not. Red China carries the flag of communist conspiracy and aggression in Asia at least as avidly and perhaps more recklessly than Russia. So far from not being "real" communists, the leaders in Peiping are at pains to prove that the mantle of Marx now rests on their shoulders rather than on the Russians. And despite grave internal weaknesses, Red China is still the mightiest Asian power, other than the Soviet Union itself. It remains true that there can be no peace in Asia while mainland China is ruled by a predatory regime, particularly a communist one. Moreover, Moscow and Peiping are quite capable of patching up their differences, for a time at least, as have other communist states after similarly acrimonious wrangles. They are most likely to do so when they see an opportunity to discomfit their common and chief antagonist, the United States. And let no one suppose that the Soviet Union has yet abandoned its purpose to dominate the communist world, while proceeding to bury the rest of us.

For the time being, however, important cracks are evident in the formerly monolithic communist conspiracy. Evidently these were not started by any United States efforts to wean satellites away from Moscow. Rather they are due in large part to strong American action in Greece, in Korea, in the Formosa Strait, in Vietnam, and elsewhere, which forestalled new communist successes and promoted dissension among the Red aggressors. But monolithic or not, communism as it has proved itself internationally, rather than as an internal politico-economic system, remains the capital enemy. It promises to remain so while propagated by such colossi as Red Russia and Red China, together or separately.

How, then, should the apparent schism between Moscow and Peiping affect United States policy? If we use the word "policy" in its traditional sense, there can be no change whatsoever. The foreign policy of the United States is well stated by the Preamble to the United Nations Charter. In support of the continuing purposes and principles of the Charter, American strategy must maintain a global confrontation of the communist menace until, in God's own time, our enemies have proved by word and deed that they are enemies no longer. So much for policy and strategy.

In the field of tactics, however, even temporary disunity among communist states can provide opportunities for flexible action by the United States in its own interest and that of the entire free world. Commodity and cultural exchanges, transport, credit, and other features of international life may be encouraged or discouraged as circumstances warrant. To date, Red China qualifies only for negative treatment, in contrast to certain countries in Eastern Europe. In all of this, however, the criteria of relative benefit must be continuously and rigorously applied, both on behalf of American interests, and of our friends and allies most directly concerned. In this process, no opportunity should be missed to build up bargaining positions, a field in which the United States has been habitually negligent.

Under no circumstances must the employment of flexible tactics be allowed to erode basic policy and strategy, or to undermine the confidence of either friend or foe in our determination to persist until that policy and strategy have triumphed. We must continue steadfastly until the would-be aggressors have been convinced that aggression in any form no longer pays, and that the peaceful principles and purposes of the United Nations set forth a policy which all nations must accept without reserve. "Aggression" and "peaceful," of course, are understood to mean what they do to reasonable men everywhere. Communists, whether of the Moscow or the Peiping strain, try unceasingly to insinuate acceptance in men's minds that aggression is anything which interferes with communist expansion, and that peace results quite simply from the absence of such interference. We must keep these issues clear as we go forward.

K. L. R.

Athens, March, 1964

nant figure in any group. Madame Chiang received us cordially. We were to share many trials later and to remain good friends throughout.

IV

In one of our early talks, Foreign Minister Yeh expressed the hope that the United States recognized Taiwan as one of the most stable and peaceful parts of Asia, with law and order in a better state even than Hong Kong; also that significant progress had been recorded in promoting governmental efficiency, military capabilities, economic development, and democratic processes. He believed it would be helpful if the United States government could acknowledge these facts publicly. The Minister thought that such action would help to quiet the alarm on Taiwan caused by repeated references abroad to the island's uncertain fate. He had in mind vague statements by officials and others that the future of Taiwan would depend upon the "negotiation of a peace treaty with Japan," or be subject to "consideration by the United Nations" or to other "international action" of some kind.

Since I had been thinking along somewhat the same lines as the Foreign Minister, I reported his remarks by telegram and added the observation that such phrases as he had quoted from official quarters abroad were believed by many people in Taiwan to indicate that any morning they might wake up to learn that the island had been turned over to some international body, with every likelihood that in the resulting confusion the real take-over would be by the communists. This telegram was followed up by a letter summarizing my impressions after almost one month in Taipei:

September 4, 1950

To an officer of the Department of State:

We used to say at the Embassy in Athens that if Greece could be kept off the front pages it was an indication that things were going pretty well. Judged by that standard things are not going well for Formosa. This situation prompts me to take a step now which I should have preferred to postpone until further clarification of policy had been received from the Department, and until I had opportunity to study the position here in more de-

tail. The step I mention leads from the discussion of tactics to that of strategy.

At the present tempo it appears that decisions may be reached in the near future which would commit us to a definite course of action in regard to Formosa over a considerable period of time. Perhaps this will occur at the meeting of the three foreign ministers next week.

. . . First, let me say that I am now inclined to share the opinion that there will be no major attack on Formosa this year, assuming that the Seventh Fleet's mission remains unaltered during that period. The Chinese communist build-up against this island continues at a steady pace, and it is only prudent to assume that they are capable of mounting an attack within a comparatively short time after the order has come from Peiping or Moscow. Certainly, there is plenty of evidence that they intend to make the attempt eventually; but the date now seems more likely to be postponed until early spring. This would be fortunate for us, since there is no evidence here of any tangible progress on our part subsequent to June 27 in preparing to ward off an assault on the island. We have as yet furnished none of the urgently needed ammunition and other critical items required by the Chinese forces, the Seventh Fleet has no comprehensive plan of action that is known to its officers around Formosa, while the 13th Air Force has little notion as to how it may fit into the picture. The flights of jet aircraft over Taipei are being carried out for psychological and "familiarization" purposes; admittedly jets would be of almost no use against a fleet of junks, and the 13th has no napalm on hand, although it is generally agreed that this would be one of the most effective weapons. . . .

To pass on to the field of political strategy, however, it seems that we may be faced again with the necessity of choosing [whether to]:

1. Continue to extend just enough aid to keep Formosa afloat, in the hope that the Chinese communists will not attack until we have reached some kind of settlement in Korea and, perhaps, in Japan.
2. Try to improve our relations with the Chinese government

as a basis for more effective economic and military aid programs, meanwhile endeavoring to work out a longer range political solution for the island which would take into account our own larger interests, those of the "Formosans," and those of the million and a half refugees from the mainland.

In my opinion the first numbered course of action is not responsive to the situation which has existed since June 25. Among other things, it is too dangerous, not only because the conquest of Formosa by the Chinese communists might materialize at a time which would be highly embarrassing to us, both militarily and politically, but also because our inadequate preparations might well encourage an attack which would bring us into an undesired war with communist China at a moment chosen by the enemy. An equally important consideration to my mind is that for the longer term Course No. 1 is defeatist, in that a continuation of communist expansion in Asia is, by implication, accepted as inevitable.

. . . If No. 2 were chosen, then I believe that perforce we must resolve to treat the Chinese government as a sovereign power, shunning unilateral action and agreements involving China but without its participation or knowledge, such as we have shared in since Yalta, as well as avoiding public statements which the Chinese may regard as studied insults, whether or not we intend them to be. Obviously, there would be much more than that to Course No. 2, but our evident adoption of the tactics mentioned would seem prerequisite to other steps. . . .

. . . If our government should decide against both of the . . . two numbered courses, there would remain among other things the possibility of concerted action under the UN, perhaps by a regional association of nations having interests in the Pacific, as foreseen in the UN Charter, to assume joint responsibility for Formosa. No doubt this point is receiving careful study in the Department at the present time. I assume, therefore, that the necessity for the most painstaking advance preparation has been recognized. Unless an understanding were reached in advance with the Chinese government, for example, international action in Formosa might well encounter armed resistance by the

Chinese forces; even with prior general agreement, certain military units might make trouble. Moreover, we must not imagine that the Formosans themselves can take over the defense of the island or provide individuals capable of assuming full responsibilities of government for a long time to come. These would remain largely international, or American, responsibilities. It might easily require the use of more UN ground forces than are now in Korea to assure internal order and defend Formosa against communist aggression.

. . . However serious the defects of the present Chinese government, it is well to remind ourselves that today it compares favorably in efficiency and honesty with any other independent government in Asia, while its Armed Forces also are of high quality, judged by Asiatic standards. Certainly the civilian and military officials on this island include a large number of highly capable and patriotic individuals, many of whom are Western-trained and pro-American. Such qualifications are not so plentiful in Asia that they may be lightly cast aside.

MacArthur described convincingly the military considerations surrounding the Formosan question in his unfortunately timed message to the Veterans of Foreign Wars. . . . We want no territory or bases on this island, but we have definite obligations to see that it remains in hands which are friendly to the free world, particularly since this represents the undoubted desire of its inhabitants. The psychological effect upon other threatened nations in Asia and elsewhere is perhaps the most important consideration of all. I feel sure that we will not fail them.

The project of a United Nations commission to investigate American "aggression" in Taiwan was under active discussion in New York and elsewhere. After a talk with the Chinese Foreign Minister, I telegraphed to Washington on September 12, expressing the hope that such an investigation would not materialize. There was nothing to investigate, of course, but opportunities would be offered for a flood of propaganda calculated to undermine the position of the Chinese government on Taiwan. Nevertheless, I thought that a United Nations commission should be permitted to carry out in-

quiries on the island if one of appropriate composition were established. I shared the Chinese view that no country should be represented that had recognized the Peiping regime. Australia, Belgium, Brazil, and the Philippines were mentioned as probably not unacceptable to the Chinese, although they consistently opposed the whole project in principle. Fortunately it never materialized.

Our little home on Grass Mountain was becoming more comfortable. The plumbing remained as primitive as ever, but odd bits of furniture had been collected and repaired or painted, and we were able to begin some modest entertaining. Our bedroom was separated from the dining room only by Japanese paper doors. These were removed when we had guests, and our beds were stowed elsewhere to provide more dining space. Two years were to go by before this situation could be improved. The worst leaks in the roof were repaired, however, and Pauline was able to see the possibilities of making yet another attractive home for us.

The thirty-ninth anniversary of the revolution that overthrew the Manchu dynasty was celebrated on October 10, 1950, just two months after my arrival in Taiwan. The tenth day of the tenth month, or "Double Ten" as the Chinese call it, was observed in Taipei with speeches, a military review, and other events. The review was a brave and impressive effort. Since 1948 the remnants of some 120 army divisions had made their way to Taiwan from the China mainland; most of their equipment necessarily had been left behind. They had since been reorganized and retrained with what arms were available on the island. Good discipline and organization were evident in the review. A lack of adequate equipment was scarcely less obvious and, as we knew, the ammunition shortage was even more critical.

With the help of David L. Osborn, a young Foreign Service officer, I prepared an article for one of the principal Chinese daily newspapers on Taiwan for the celebration of the Double Tenth. It was unusually well received and was published in full by most of the Chinese dailies on the island, and in abbreviated form by papers in Hong Kong and elsewhere. In fact, press use of the article exceeded the usage rate of any previous item released by the United States

IX

Another potential military asset for our side existed in Indochina, where some 25,000 Chinese troops had been interned after their withdrawal from China in the face of greatly superior communist forces. I reported as follows (in paraphrase):

November 10, 1950

To the Department of State:

The Chinese Foreign Minister told me yesterday that he considers the situation in Indochina to be hopeless unless the United States rushes additional aid and forces to the French to speed up the creation of a sizable and effective native army. Unless these steps are taken he sees no reason for sacrificing the Chinese troops now interned in Indochina, but if the French actually adopt a suitable program the Foreign Minister thinks that these Chinese troops could serve a useful purpose in bridging the present gap.

I have no direct information regarding the troops in question. Undoubtedly the Chinese are good soldiers when well fed, equipped, and led; I believe that the possibility of using these experienced troops on the spot should be looked into most carefully.

At this time we learned that President Chiang was considering the possibility of raids on the China coast opposite Taiwan, and that he probably would seek American logistic support. I telegraphed to the Department on November 20 that it seemed impracticable to achieve an early lodgment on the mainland, but that raids offered some attractions. Among these were the possibility of relieving pressure on Indochina, interrupting enemy communications with that theater, and perhaps even bringing about the diversion of some Chinese communist units from Korea. I said that a successful raid could raise morale everywhere in the noncommunist Far East. It will be recalled that things were going badly for us in Korea at that moment.

On November 16, 1950, we received our first important visit of Washington officials since my arrival in Taipei three months earlier.

Mr. William C. Foster, administrator of the Economic Cooperation Administration, was accompanied by Mrs. Foster and several officers of his organization. Realizing the importance of this opportunity to get across our thinking to Washington, political, economic, and military officers stationed in Taipei prepared carefully for the visit. First, we wanted to convince Mr. Foster of the soundness of our views on policy, about which all of us in Taiwan were in substantial agreement. Second, we hoped for an increase in ECA (economic aid) funds for the island. In the calendar year only twenty million dollars had been available, although Taiwan's deficit in international payments approached ninety million dollars. An increase of twenty million had been approved for the coming months, but we wanted at least sixty million for the fiscal year ending June 30, 1951.

Our first session was at the Embassy, where I read a general statement on the problems of Taiwan. Parts of the text are given here:

> Unfortunately, the problems surrounding Formosa have generated so much heat as to leave many Americans bewildered if not actually singed. I was not at Wake Island and have seen no reports on the meeting of the President and General MacArthur other than those which appeared in the press. Nevertheless, I shall venture to give a brief summary of the positive aspects of American policy toward this island as I understand them. . . .
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> Long-term American policy toward the "question of Formosa" is that in fulfillment of the Cairo Declaration all appropriate steps should be taken toward its eventual incorporation into a friendly and peaceful China, under conditions acceptable to a majority of the island's inhabitants. I believe that to be a sound policy and one which we should always keep in mind. Unhappily, it is based upon hopes which present day realities have made remote to say the least.
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> As a guide for present action, therefore, we have a short- to medium-range policy. Reduced to its simplest terms, this policy is that the United States should exert all practicable efforts to keep Formosa outside the Curtain and, to the extent consistent with such primary policy, to prevent the outbreak of hostilities in this area. I believe such efforts to be in accord-

ance with the political, economic, and strategic interests of the United States in particular, and of the free world in general, besides being for the benefit and in conformity with the wishes of a majority of the eight million people on this island. Moreover, the psychological influence of the fate of Formosa and other threatened countries of East Asia is a matter of outstanding importance.

We cannot divorce the question of Formosa entirely from the larger question of China. Obvious practical considerations, as well as the long-term policy outlined above, make it necessary that in dealing with this island the United States should have a clear-cut position toward the two related but not identical questions of Chinese membership in the United Nations and American recognition of one or the other existing Chinese regime. American policy is that there is no justification for changing the *status quo* in this regard, at least as long as the Chinese government on Formosa makes a reasonably honest effort to sustain the purposes and principles of the United Nations, while the Peiping regime openly flouts them. Either the Chinese communists are so completely dominated by Moscow as to be unable to conduct themselves as a self-respecting sovereign state, or their leaders have voluntarily dedicated themselves to undermining the world order created by the Charter of the United Nations. In either case, the United States is justified in continuing to recognize the Chinese government on Formosa and to oppose admission of the Peiping regime into the United Nations. . . .

We should not deceive ourselves, however, by assuming that the United States can shift to others any considerable part of the burdens of influencing United Nations opinion or of supplying the tangible outside support required to keep Formosa in the orbit of the free world. The United Kingdom might have helped and may yet do so if circumstances should force the British government to acknowledge its mistake in recognizing communist China last January. Meantime, while seeking all possible moral support from friendly countries, the United States must not expect to share with others besides the government and people of this island the practical responsibilities

involved. The vital questions arise, therefore, whether we can afford the necessary effort, in the light of American commitments elsewhere and whether we can obtain the essential degree of cooperation from the Chinese government in implementing our policy. . . .

During the past year the Chinese government has been forced to draw heavily on its holdings of gold and foreign exchange, besides virtually exhausting the $125 million grant extended by the United States in 1948. Internally, the currency situation has been kept from getting entirely out of hand only with the assistance which ECA was in a position to extend, and by various drastic measures which it may be impracticable to continue much longer. When it is noted that approximately 70 per cent of total government income is being devoted to military purposes, we need not look further for the first point of attack.

In absolute terms, expenditures for maintaining the defense establishment on Formosa are very low. . . . During and since the war [military "hardware"] equipment has been supplied to China very largely by the United States. At the present time [military aid] funds are being used to a limited extent for the extension of so-called selected military assistance to Formosa. The determination of such assistance is understood to be in the hands of the Joint Chiefs of Staff and, presumably, is based upon purely military considerations. No one here in Formosa has been given any idea of the extent, or more than a few details of the nature, of the military aid in prospect.

From the economic point of view, it obviously is desirable to coordinate military assistance with the ECA program. The supply of American shoes to the troops, for example, would not only increase their combat efficiency but could reduce or eliminate present local currency outlays of the Chinese government for inferior footwear of domestic manufacture. The soldier today is getting all the rice he can eat, but his health is impaired by lack of a balanced diet. The supply of supplementary foods from the United States would correct this condition and might release additional rice for export from the island. Consideration also could be given to increased imports of consumer goods, paid for by the United States, the sale of which on the Formosan

market would provide local currency expressly to meet military requirements. All such expenditures evidently should be chargeable to military aid, but to date "selected" assistance to Formosa has not taken into account the economic implications of military expenditures other than as part of the direct dollar cost.

In a larger sense, of course, it may not matter in many cases whether the assistance given is labeled economic or military. The crucial point is that substantial increases in both categories are urgently needed. . . . Only by close coordination of military and economic assistance, however, can we hope to obtain optimum results. Such results, at comparatively moderate expense, should give promise of achieving our policy of keeping Formosa outside the Curtain, by making it self-supporting economically within a very few years and, with a minimum of military assistance, discouraging or preventing aggression against the island. In those terms, aid to Formosa seems very much worth-while in the light of our world-wide commitments. We cannot afford to lose further ground in the Far East if it can possibly be avoided.

So we come to the last and most delicate question—that of United States relations with the Chinese government. Many Americans have wondered during the past few years why, in view of all that has been said and done, we continue to recognize and to aid this government. Actually, the reasons pro and con may be less significant than the fact that we are still in here pitching. With due allowance for the force of circumstances, there is evidently something fundamental in the active American preference for Free China as opposed to communist China. There is at least a tacit recognition of the fact that in dealing with communist imperialism we cannot be neutral. To say, "A plague on both your houses," is no good; carried to its logical conclusion this means packing up, going home, and reverting to isolationism. . . .

The first consideration in our practical relations with the Chinese government, therefore, is whether we can obtain a satisfactory degree of cooperation in implementing American policy here. Our ECA Mission can tell you of past and present expe-

rience in this regard. My own experience during the three months I have been here is that the cooperation we receive compares not unfavorably in spirit and effectiveness with that in other countries where we are extending economic and military aid. With a fully coordinated program covering both fields it should be possible to obtain still better cooperation and thus improve the prospects of success in carrying out our policies.

Finally, I shall not evade the question whether the Chinese government is deserving of our help. Certainly it has many defects from the standpoints of efficiency . . . [but in Asia] this government is one of the more effective and maintains a satisfactory degree of law and order while preserving a considerable measure of personal freedom. Equally important, there seems to have been some improvement in these respects during the past year. There are signs of evolution into something more like what we call democracy, not into a communist strait jacket. This is all very important, and the United States should do everything in its power to encourage and even enforce further improvement. But we should not lose sight of the fact that reform is of immediate consequence to us only in so far as it contributes to the fulfillment of our primary policy. Reform, however desirable, must not be allowed to prevent effective cooperation between governments in attaining our more tangible and urgent objectives.

To achieve a maximum of success in Formosa, it seems evident that American support and cooperation must be whole-hearted. This does not mean "all-out." The United States has many other obligations, to its own people, to the United Nations, and to friendly countries throughout the world. Nor does whole-hearted support imply our assumption of direct responsibility for keeping any particular government in power. We should be ready to work with any government which shows a sincere desire to cooperate, and our efforts should be directed toward making the most effective possible use of our relations with that government in obtaining practical results. Within the limits of such considerations, and of American commitments elsewhere, our attitude toward the government on Formosa should be frank, firm, friendly, and whole-hearted if we are to

contribute our share to obtaining a maximum of cooperation on this island.

Chinese officials noted that Mr. Foster was the first high official of the United States government to visit Taiwan in many months. All of us in Taipei, Chinese and Americans alike, were pleased with the visit. Mr. Foster and his associates displayed a most intelligent and sympathetic interest in our problems. His subsequent article on Taiwan in the *Reader's Digest* was most helpful.

■

Before Mr. Foster's departure, other important visitors, Senator and Mrs. William F. Knowland, arrived. In retrospect, this visit also went off gratifyingly, but with some complications as the following despatch will indicate:

November 27, 1950

To the Department of State:

During a visit of one week (November 17-24, 1950) to Formosa, Senator and Mrs. William F. Knowland were the official guests of the Chinese government. A very full schedule was arranged for them by an official of the Foreign Office, who on request supplied the details of their activities shown on an enclosure to the present despatch. (American participation is indicated at various points on the schedule.) The Knowlands were met at the airport by a large crowd, despite the hour of 6:40 a.m., and were escorted to the government Guest House where they resided during their stay.

When news of the California Senator's prospective visit first reached Taipei, I expressed privately to Foreign Minister Yeh the hope that the Chinese would not "stand on their heads" to welcome him. I understood that they appreciated his sincere and indefatigable support, and that they naturally would wish to show this appreciation. However, I pointed out that Knowland's position on China was popularly considered to have a strong partisan bias. Under the circumstances, the Chinese government would do well, in its own interest, not to lend further credence to the already general impression that it was following

After circling the airport for two hours, the aircraft was unable to land, due to the low ceiling, and returned to Okinawa. I therefore arranged for them to proceed by the Naval attaché's plane at 9:30 A.M. Others among the numerous crowd at the airport to bid them good-bye included the Prime Minister, the Governor, and the chief of the ECA Mission, Dr. Mayer. Any lingering suspicion of coolness between the Knowlands and official Americans in Taipei should have been dispelled when they took off in a plane bearing a large American flag and conspicuously marked "United States Naval Attaché China." The Senator and his wife had been most cordial at all times.

This despatch is reproduced in *extenso*, partly because of the experience gained from the visit by the Chinese and the Embassy in preparing for the innumerable Congressional visitations that followed, and also because it is the last such despatch I ever wrote. Apparently Senator Knowland asked the Department to let him see whatever had been reported from Taipei about his visit. I had classified the despatch "confidential," and instead of refusing his request for that reason, as a matter of principle, the Department asked me whether I had any objection to passing it on to him. Had I said "no," presumably the Senator would have been so informed and left to suspect the worst. So of course I consented, but pointed out the unfortunate precedent being created. At the same time I told the Department that hereafter my despatches on Congressional visits would be unclassified and limited to a simple account of the schedules followed. According to press reports my despatch eventually was made available to a Senate Committee inquiring into the MacArthur episode. I might add that Knowland and I remained good friends.

XI

On December 5 I wrote as follows to an officer of the Department of State:

> At the present moment we are all holding our breaths for the result of the Truman-Attlee meeting, which could be almost anything. One unpleasant possibility, in the event of another Munich, would be to have the 300-odd Americans now in For-

mosa given the Chinese equivalent of tar-and-feather treatment. Little as I should enjoy such a suit of winter clothing, I honestly couldn't blame them too much. However, I really don't expect anything of the kind.

Rightly or wrongly I have the impression that we have been developing a fairly positive Formosa policy since June 27, but it may have been rather late. We probably shall know very shortly whether events have overtaken us or overwhelmed us. Frankly, I do not see how we can give in on anything important; our position in Asia has already been reduced to a minimum. Any more losses on our side will put us out of the Far East entirely and permit the communists to concentrate on Europe. The Near and Middle East would go by default. Meanwhile, there is the grave military situation in Korea to consider, and I have no clear picture of just how that stands.

I suppose it must be evident to everyone by now that the United States should have maintained large and effective striking forces in Germany and Japan until such time as those two countries could be rearmed. . . . With them on our side we can balance the situation, and it seems to me that top priority should go to rearming them now. Any further delay may well be fatal.

All of the above sounds pretty pessimistic, and we shall hope that the Truman-Attlee talks will produce something constructive. But with those 800,000 agrarian reformers sweeping down through Korea, I cannot help remembering our modest efforts to promote a greater "sense of urgency" at Bangkok nearly a year ago.

The meeting of President Truman and Prime Minister Attlee ended reassuringly. Definitely, we were not to have another Munich. The following is a paraphrase of my telegram:

December 13, 1950

To the Department of State:

Local reaction is reserved but generally favorable to the final communique on the Truman-Attlee meeting, as already indicated in recent press review telegrams. It was widely expected

here that Britain would favor giving Formosa to the Chinese communists in the vague hope of buying time or favor. The United States was expected to take a firm stand, and the fact that the British were won over to the American position except on the questions of recognition and UN membership is looked upon as a definite advance. However, in view of the situation in Korea and elsewhere, Chinese government circles and the local public will reserve judgment until a clearer picture becomes available of the course of action intended by the United States.

Opinion here cannot see how further consideration by the UN of questions affecting Formosa can contribute to a peaceful settlement and to the maintenance of security in the Pacific unless reinforced by continuing and effective steps to counter communist aggression. In the absence of such steps and in the face of the unyielding position taken by the communists and their avowed intention to take Formosa by force, further discussion in the UN could produce no substantial result at best; at worst it might bring forth an appeasing compromise which would open the way for communist control of the island.

Chinese government circles in general appreciate the soundness of American policy in continuing to make the greatest possible use of UN channels, in welcoming the discussion of any subject, and in avoiding in every possible way the use of the veto. At the same time no one expects the UN as such to establish and implement an effective program of safeguarding the "interests of the people of Formosa and the maintenance of peace and security in the Pacific" except in so far as such a program is proposed and supported by the U.S. Premier Chen Cheng remarked to me a few days ago, "The existence of the free world depends upon unity among the free nations, which in turn depends upon American leadership. All of us (i.e., all free nations) are looking for that leadership and are ready to follow it."

As a matter of fact, the United States already is embarked upon a positive course of action as regards Formosa, and I believe that the Truman-Attlee agreement furnishes a basis on which to carry such action through to its logical conclusion. This could be done without fanfare and without compromising

our UN and other commitments. We need only to step up and to clarify action which is already under way:

1. While we should welcome UN or other international discussion of the "future of Formosa," I believe that we should overlook no suitable opportunity to repeat and to make clear our position that, under any circumstances, we shall resist the use of force to change the status of this island, and that its legal position can be settled only in a treaty with Japan. . . .

2. The ECA program for Formosa, calling for larger aid and the assignment of a modest number of United States technical experts, should be speeded up in every possible way to produce maximum results within the shortest space of time. This is already under way and is the most satisfactory and logical aspect of the American effort on this island.

3. Our present Armed Services attaché staff, numbering fifty Americans, should be enlarged to permit the detail of qualified officers and enlisted men to various units of the Chinese Army, Navy, and Air Force, where they would advise on training and the use of equipment in addition to keeping the United States government informed regarding Chinese military effectiveness, their equipment, and other requirements and on the end-use of American aid. This would be in effect simply an expansion of what we are doing already and would not need to be heralded as the "despatch of an American military mission." The additional personnel could be assigned as required to fill specific needs reported by the senior military attaché and would be under his orders; the total probably would never exceed two hundred. This plan is much to be preferred to the establishment of a formal "mission" along with the unwanted overhead and political implications, here and in the United States, which such action would inevitably involve.

Having taken the foregoing political, economic, and military steps we should be well on the way toward making Formosa capable of resisting aggression, self-supporting economically, and, in case hostilities should spread, a military asset. Training and equipping forces here should be for defense; this leaves enough to be done while avoiding the encouragement of any independent adventures. . . . When trained and equipped for

the defense of this island, however, Nationalist forces could readily be fitted into possible combined offensive operations in case of a general conflict. On this point we should look ahead as far as the Chinese communists, who evidently expected a speedy North Korean victory last summer but nevertheless made plans long in advance to use their own troops if necessary.

III

As 1950 drew to a close I reported the following conversation with an American citizen in a telegram (paraphrased):

December 26, 1950

To the Department of State:

Additional support for the opinion that the Chinese communists are committed to an all-out effort in Korea came today from a well-informed American who left Shanghai as recently as last month. He reported that the Chinese fully anticipated that the United States would bomb Manchuria and other points in China when Chinese communist intervention in Korea could no longer be hidden. He stated that this was an important reason why their open participation (in Korea) was delayed as long as possible; the communists feared bombings which would cut their lines of communication from North China to Korea before adequate amounts of military supplies could be moved (*see* also my telegram of November 6). This American added that our failure to bomb military objectives in China, when the Chinese communist aggression became apparent to everyone, was generally looked upon in Shanghai as evidence of American political and military weakness and was disappointing to the anti-communist majority of the population. Presumably the failure of the United States to undertake stronger military action with the crossing of the 38th parallel by the Chinese communists would confirm the opinion in communist China that the United States had accepted defeat.

bers of his staff were later convinced that but for his efforts Alamein would have been Rommel's victory. Montgomery got the credit, deservedly enough, but who can say what would have happened to the Allied cause in the Middle East had Kirk kept strictly out of the military field?

II

At this time our small Embassy staff was strengthened by the assignment of Robert W. Rinden as chief of the political section. One of our Chinese language officers, he had been with me briefly in Canton, en route to Tihwa in western China. The same events that kept me from Shanghai prevented Rinden from reaching his post, and he had been sent to Indonesia instead. Now, I was delighted to have him in Taipei. Excerpts from his first monthly political report are given here:

> During January 1951 the thinking of military and political leaders in Formosa was dominated by a deepening conviction that the hardening of the United States attitude toward the Peiping regime presaged large-scale American military assistance to Nationalist China and, as a corollary, abandonment of the military neutralization of Formosa and accelerated moves for the mainland's reconquest.
>
> Ambassador Gross's statement that the United States would participate in no conference involving Chinese Nationalist interests at which they were not present, and that American military security considerations would enter into the United States viewpoint on the "Formosa problem," was officially and editorially acclaimed as evidence of a reversal of American policy toward Formosa and Nationalist China. Subsequent official explanations in Washington that there was no change in China policy did little to modify the original reaction to the Ambassador's remarks.
>
> United States unwillingness to parley further on the basis of the limited cease-fire counter-proposal [in Korea], American efforts to have the United Nations condemn the Chinese communists as aggressors, and the Senate and House resolutions

denouncing Red China were interpreted to mean that the United States had passed the point of no return in its negotiations with the regime of Mao Tse-tung.

Besides the apparent logic of the situation, Senator McCarran's proposal to give Free China one billion dollars of war material, press reports that from forty to sixty million dollars of military aid would soon be granted Formosa, and well-publicized discussion in the United States Congress and press of the folly of not arming Nationalist troops for a counter-attack on communist China, all created the impression that military assistance in large amounts and lifting the ban on a counter-offensive were near at hand. Heartened by the prospect of substantial American support, Nationalist China's leaders talked and planned more than ever for a return to the mainland.

Although during January the mood of Nationalist China was predominantly one of rising optimism and morale there were a few bad moments—notably when the United States accepted the final United Nations cease-fire proposal. Its provision for a conference on Formosa and other Far Eastern problems, to be participated in by the Chinese communists (but presumably not by the Chinese Nationalists) aroused no little alarm and protest in Taipei. The Foreign Minister declared: "The proposal for the participation of Chinese communist representatives in the General Assembly's attempt to settle Far Eastern problems would be to sell out not only Free China and Korea but also the United Nations itself."

After the Chinese communists' rejection of the last cease-fire proposal, local officials and editors warned the United States against further hope of making peace with the Chinese communists and castigated Nehru, the British, and the Arab-Asian group for delaying action in the United Nations on the United States resolution to brand the Peiping group as aggressors. Not only members of the United Nations were excoriated, but the organization itself was found a source of disenchantment. In this connection the Nationalist Government Spokesman recently stated that the Formosa question should be settled at the Japanese peace treaty conference—not by the United Nations.

☆ *China Assignment* ☆

With March not far off—when the heavy monsoon seas in the Formosa Strait subside—thought was given to the possibility of a communist attack on Formosa as well as to plans for a Nationalist invasion of the mainland. Reports of increased military activity in East China—reinforcement of coastal garrisons and construction of airfields and highways—Soviet transfers of former Japanese naval vessels to the Chinese communists, aircraft over Shanghai and Canton, and the arrival in Canton of a number of Soviet advisers were disquieting. At the same time, however, there was evidence of Chinese communist withdrawals from coastal areas and other preparations on their part more indicative of defensive than offensive intentions toward Free China. Massing of Red Chinese troops near the Indochina border, further such troop movements in that direction from Central China, Soviet-communist China-Vietminh military conferences at Nanning, construction of a Soviet submarine base on Hainan Island, and the presence of Russian submarines in the South China Sea were reported; all suggested that Indochina, rather than Formosa, might be the next object of a major communist aggression.

■

By coincidence, our military position in Korea began to improve on the same day that my January 24 letter was written. It was too soon to say that the communist tide was ebbing and that the immediate danger in Korea and Taiwan was past. But evidently we were to have time to prepare for the next round. I recommended that the Department order me to Washington for consultation. This was done.

Before leaving Taipei I called on Premier Chen Cheng, for whom I had already gained a high regard. He seemed a quiet man, but his distinguished military record, which had carried him up to the position of chief of staff on the China mainland, was evidence of iron in his soul. Moreover, as governor of Taiwan and later premier, he had shown an appreciation of social and economic problems not often found among professional soldiers in Asia or elsewhere. In this conversation General Chen stated that although the national forces were not yet prepared for a landing on the mainland, with our help

and toward China in particular? The Chinese had regarded MacArthur as one of their strongest friends and supporters.

In military terms, the transfer of General Matthew B. Ridgway to head the Far East Command and the appointment of Lieutenant General James A. Van Fleet to command the United Nations Forces were both reassuring. I telegraphed to Van Fleet on April 16: "Warmest congratulations on your momentous assignment. They could not have made a better selection. Best wishes for your success."

Van Fleet acknowledged my message cordially. He had come to Greece as head of our military mission at the beginning of 1948, when I was chargé d'affaires, and I knew him well. In addition to being an eminent and offensive-oriented field commander, he was a natural leader. He had quickly gained the confidence, admiration, and cooperation of the Greeks. I was certain that he would do the same in Korea. The Eighth Army was in good hands.

x

With a stalemate in prospect for Korea and a large program of military aid to Taiwan decided on, the time seemed appropriate for further efforts to explain our China policy to the public. Later, more specific statements on Taiwan would be in order, but these evidently should derive from broad United States policy toward China. In September, 1950, the Department had issued a pamphlet, "Our Foreign Policy," which devoted about three pages to China. The conception of the pamphlet was good, but I was not satisfied with everything that was said about China. Moreover, there were significant omissions. Assisted by Robert Rinden, therefore, I drafted a statement which we hoped would be of some use. Particular care was given to avoiding controversy, while retaining a positive approach. The text was forwarded to the Department on April 23, 1951:

> For nearly twenty years the Nationalist Government of China had fought against Japanese penetration and open aggression. In 1945, with the help of its Western allies and despite more opposition than assistance from the U.S.S.R., China had won that desperate struggle. In this process the government had

brought about the abolition of extraterritorial rights with which China had been burdened, as well as foreign control of its taxes and customs. At last it seemed to many that the Chinese could concentrate on internal reconstruction and reforms without fear of being absorbed or torn apart by foreign enemies. But as Japan in the 1930's feared growing Chinese nationalism, so in 1945 the Kremlin was unwilling to see China become a strong independent nation which could not readily be transformed into a Soviet satellite. Moscow decided that the time had come to amalgamate China into what Stalin has called the "single state union"—Soviet communism's pattern for world rule.

In August 1945 the Soviet Union drove several hard bargains with the Nationalist Government of China, taking advantage of the latter's weakness after years of war and enemy occupation. These agreements went far beyond what the United States had envisaged at Yalta. The Soviet Union got full authority over key ports and railroads in what was universally recognized to be Chinese territory. In effect, the U.S.S.R. obtained control of Manchuria, whose rich natural resources, large industries and strategic location were of such significance that the Nationalist Government considered its retention essential to China's continued existence as a sovereign power. Forced to compromise with the Soviets, the Chinese Nationalists steadfastly refused to abandon Manchuria altogether until forced to do so by communist armies in 1948.

In the thirty-year Treaty of Friendship and Alliance signed in 1945, the Soviet Union agreed to "render to China moral support and aid in military supplies and other material resources," and to give such support and aid only to the Nationalist Government of China. Once the Kremlin had obtained a legal foothold in Manchuria, however, the undertaking to support only the Nationalist Government was conveniently forgotten. The Soviet Union not only transferred its material and moral support entirely to the Chinese communists, but in less than five years (February, 1950) had concluded a Treaty of Friendship and Alliance and Mutual Assistance with these open enemies of the Nationalist Government.

Even if militant Soviet-supported communism had never

existed in China, the country could scarcely have avoided a postwar period of unrest and confusion. The Nationalist Government had been driven by the Japanese from the chief centers of population and production to the remote wartime capital of Chungking. It was ill prepared in 1945 for the gigantic task of resuming the administration of the most populous and one of the largest in area of the world's countries. A ruinous inflation was in progress, communications were disrupted and resistance or guerrilla movements of various political complexions were not ready for an orderly and peaceful existence. Moreover, despite gratifying progress recorded in the early 1930's, China had never in modern times enjoyed peace and prosperity over a sufficient period to permit the development of a system of civil administration adequate to the needs of a modern state. The essential fact remains, however, that with active Soviet support and a ruthless Russian-trained cadre developed over a quarter of a century, and with all of the advantages of being a "new broom" in a country where nearly everyone had reason to be dissatisfied with things as they were, the communists were not only the positive but also the decisive factor in bringing China behind the Curtain. In the absence of militant communism, the Chinese Nationalist Government probably would have been able to surmount postwar difficulties, despite its freely admitted defects and many other handicaps, and to take a leading position in the family of free nations.

There can be no definitive answer to the question whether communist conquest of China could have been avoided by various steps which the Nationalist Government and the United States, among others, might have taken. The Soviet Union consistently displayed its readiness to flout solemn international agreements. In direct violation of such an agreement, it deliberately offset American aid to the Nationalists in restoring order, by arming the communist rebels with captured Japanese weapons. This action, and many others, suggests that the Soviets were prepared to go to any lengths to gain control of China under the unique opportunity afforded by chaotic postwar conditions. To inquire regarding the extent to which the communists were able to win the allegiance of the Chinese people away from the Na-

tionalists must also remain in large part rhetorical. However, it is important to note that China's crowding millions, at least 75 per cent of whom are still illiterate and politically inert, have been for centuries preoccupied with averting starvation for their families and themselves. They are not interested in political dogma, but from time to time in history they have accepted new rulers who were strong in battle and free with promises. Rarely have these promises been fulfilled, and under communism today the disillusionment of China's masses may well be greater than ever before. Among the literate 25 per cent or less, there is also a growing realization that initial evidences of discipline and personal integrity among the communists have not kept them from yielding the sovereignty of their country to Moscow and supporting their internal position by political persecution on an almost unprecedented scale.

Time and again the Chinese people have shown a capacity to liberate themselves by outlasting and absorbing their conquerors. Will they be able, in time, to free themselves from Soviet domination? Among those who know and understand China there is a strong belief that the traditional pride and independent spirit of the Chinese people will, in the long run, triumph over every foreign attempt to dominate them—including the present attempt. Whether or not this judgment turns out to be right will depend on many factors, both in and outside China. It will depend on the toughness of other Asian peoples in standing up for their independence against communist pressure. It will depend on the strength we can add to theirs, and on American example.

The policy of the United States is to use every effective method of further enlightening the Chinese people on the true nature of Soviet aims as opposed to those of the free world, while actively extending all practicable assistance to them in regaining their independence, as well as their administrative and territorial integrity. Meantime, the United States will continue to oppose by every feasible means any and all acts of aggression against China's neighbors to which the communist regime lends itself in brutal disregard of China's peaceful tradition.

heavily fortified line against another possible offensive from South Korea, to strengthen their defenses on the coast opposite Taiwan, and to prepare for the conquest of Tonkin. For an indefinite future period their effort north of the 38th parallel would be a holding operation, until some new opportunity could be found to absorb the Republic of Korea. Meanwhile, by engaging in truce negotiations, the communists could be reasonably certain that their opponents in Korea would neither undertake major offensive operations against them nor help the Chinese on Taiwan to do so. When ready on all fronts, in 1953, they signed an armistice and turned their attention to Southeast Asia.

Our problems on Taiwan during the period of truce negotiations were complicated by the necessity of planning both for a relatively long period of stalemate and the possibility of hostilities on short notice. In mid-1951 the Korean War was a year old, and my first year in Free China, as we called it more and more frequently, was drawing to a close. Whatever the outcome of the truce negotiations in Korea, our program of support for the government of the Republic of China was well under way. Sufficient funds had been authorized to close the gap in Taiwan's international payments. On the military side, if large-scale fighting in Korea were to cease, it seemed probable that materiel would be readily available to supply Free China with almost everything that might be needed.

II

At this time, press and other reports indicated that the United States and the United Kingdom had reached a compromise agreement by which neither the Taipei government nor the Peiping regime would sign the proposed multilateral peace treaty with Japan. At first glance this seemed an almost inevitable compromise under the circumstances. Since the Soviet Union would not be among the signatories, which included most of the countries at war with Japan, it was evident that neither would Peiping sign. On the other hand, the government of the Republic of China would have been quite ready to do so. Of particular importance to that government, and indirectly to the United States, was the fact that the international legal position of Taiwan was involved.

A draft of the multilateral treaty had been completed on June 14.

The Chinese asked us to postpone its circulation among the interested parties until agreement could be reached on a bilateral Chinese-Japanese treaty. They wished, if possible, to avoid public discussion of the draft until their own position had been assured. As a matter of fact, they assumed that the British had shown the text to the Peiping regime, and that either it would leak out or be made public officially any day. The Chinese on Taiwan were vitally interested, not simply because of their legal position on the island, but because of their prestige, both at home and abroad. Moreover, they considered that a treaty between themselves and Japan would serve as an effective barrier to any possible rapprochement between Tokyo and Peiping.

The text of the proposed treaty with Japan was made public on July 2, 1951, and public reaction on Taiwan was no less unfavorable than we had anticipated. Queried by the press, I issued the following statement on July 25:

> The Chinese Nationalist Government on Formosa and many elements friendly to that Government, both of Chinese and other nationality, are deeply hurt by the omission of China from the list of countries invited to sign the multilateral Japanese peace treaty. Their chagrin parallels that of the Philippines and Korea, although for reasons differing in detail. It should not be difficult to understand these bitter feelings on the part of countries so intimately involved in the late war with Japan. This is particularly true of Free China, which lost all but a small fraction of its huge territory and population as an indirect result of that war. Moreover, the Chinese Nationalists say and believe that the influences which exclude them from the Treaty are the same which favor extinguishing what remains of China's independence by turning over Formosa to the tender mercies of the communists. No less important in their minds is the necessity of continuing their mission on Formosa: to provide a rallying point which some day will play a vital part in liberating their homeland from the communist yoke.
>
> On the other hand, we may expect a growing realization among the Chinese outside the Curtain that the draft Japanese Peace Treaty, as published on July 12, 1951, protects Chinese

interests as well as any such document could be expected to do, with or without the signature of the Nationalist Government. Careful study of the draft also will reveal to them few if any political features to which China could object, other than its omission from the list of signatories. It may also be expected that Free China in general will come to accept, as many of its leading citizens already do, the paramount importance to the free world of a magnanimous peace treaty with Japan, including as many important countries as possible and to be signed at the earliest possible date.

There will remain the delicate but essential task of restoring normal relations between Japan and Free China as soon as possible, along lines similar to those of the draft treaty. Despite all that has happened in the past, the good will and common sense existing on both sides make success both possible and probable. Any necessary support from friends abroad should not be withheld.

III

Nearly five months had passed since my latest visit to Washington, and on August 13 I wrote a long letter to Assistant Secretary of State Dean Rusk. I reviewed recent developments and current problems of military and economic aid. I felt a modest optimism over the short- to medium-term outlook. For the more distant future I had misgivings. I concluded as follows:

In the process of looking ahead it is also important to keep our thinking clear on the fundamental problem of overpopulation in so much of the Far East. The communists have promised higher living standards without caring whether these promises could be kept. Americans have tended to outbid them in this regard, with the best of intentions but without realizing the full implications of such promises. During the current fiscal year we are by way of assuming at least a degree of responsibility for the economic welfare of nearly 700 million people in Asia and its nearby islands. For this program we propose to spend an average of about 54 cents a head. A great deal of good can be done with this money, but no one can pretend that it will pro-

of my appreciation for the personal interest you have taken in the negotiations and the valuable support you have given me in bringing about the successful conclusion of the Treaty.

VII

At the turn of the year 1951-52 Francis Cardinal Spellman visited Taipei after spending Christmas with our forces in Korea. I had never met him before and was immediately charmed with his personality. A combination of modesty and assurance such as his is rare indeed. He was to visit us several times over the years. I recall one occasion, which to me was most revealing. The entire diplomatic corps had been invited to attend a Mass at which the Cardinal would officiate. It was conducted in the large hall where the Legislative Yuan held its sessions. The stage was trimmed attractively with pine boughs, and I thought at once of the danger of fire from the candles close to the branches. During the Mass one of the boughs broke into a feeble flame. The Cardinal was on his knees at a solemn moment. Before anyone else on the platform reacted, he rose, and, with great dignity, walked over to the incipient fire and put it out with his hands. Then, with no break in the ritual, he returned to his place and knelt again. The Cardinal's visits were of great value to all of us, Chinese and Americans alike, whatever our religious affiliations.

VIII

In early 1952 the number of official Americans in Taiwan passed the five hundred mark, not including dependents. A majority of these belonged to the Armed Services, but our economic mission, now known as MSA China, was expanding too. I was asked to talk to the economic staff, which included a large proportion of new arrivals, about American policy. Passages from my remarks on April 1, 1952, are included here:

> Popular mythology represents the United States either as having no foreign policy whatever or as being guided in its foreign relations by highly secret and often sinister influences which can be only partially unmasked by continuous investiga-

tions on the part of Congress and the press. In actual fact American foreign policy not only has a very real existence but is largely an open book. Secret understandings with foreign powers have been rare, and seldom have remained secret for long. The most decisive single factor in shaping policy is American public opinion, which is influenced by overt far more than by covert means, by the press and radio rather than by clandestine propaganda. As long as the American press and radio are substantially free, we need worry only to the extent that such media of information permit themselves to be misled. And there are too many of them for a majority to be wrong most of the time.

How then have these myths about our foreign policy gained such wide acceptance? I shall try to explain certain reasons for this and to illustrate them by examples from our own experience in Formosa.

In the first place we must remember that foreign policy is largely determined by domestic policy—by domestic "politics," if you wish. This is particularly true in a democracy which is at the same time a great power and therefore capable of exerting a decisive influence on the course of world events. (A minor country has its foreign policy determined largely by external influences.) To those of us who believe in democracy—government by the people—all of this is as it should be. In fact, I may go so far as to say that the basic tenets of American foreign policy are a reality only to the extent that they are understood, accepted, and supported by the American people.

Yet our public has only in recent years come to realize the power and responsibilities of the United States in world affairs. The tradition of isolationism—not inappropriate to our country in the nineteenth century and even in the early part of the twentieth—remains strong. It still inclines the American public to some suspicion of foreigners and foreign entanglements. This, in turn, leads our responsible officials in their public statements to avoid the appearance of being so far in advance of public opinion as to produce an undesired and negative reaction. Sometimes they lean over backward in this respect, and

thus encourage the myth that "we have no foreign policy." What this really means, of course, is that official policy may appear negative rather than positive. In either case a policy exists.

Turning now to Formosa, a number of interesting official policy documents labeled "secret" and "top secret" have dealt with this island during the past several years. The usual reasons why they have been so labeled were either that opinions were set forth which represented simply the views of an individual or group, rather than the accepted position of our government, or that they were so far in advance of public opinion at home and abroad as to make it unwise to risk unfavorable reaction by making them public. In the second case consideration always must be given to how much it is desirable for our enemies to know, and in which instances it is wise to announce in advance an intended course of action contingent upon circumstances which may never arise.

Yet the broad lines of American policy toward Formosa are not secret. Before, during, and since World War II this island has always been recognized as of unquestionable importance, strategically and otherwise. The differences of opinion were as to the degree of its importance and what we should do about it.

In the months prior to the communist aggression in Korea our positive program was limited to the extension of a modest amount of economic aid to Formosa as the only Chinese territory where such a program could still be carried on. Before June 25, 1950, it was widely hoped and believed—I personally shared the hope but not the belief—that the Far Eastern situation would work itself out in due course without further large-scale hostilities. The events of mid-1950 belied that hope and the importance of keeping Formosa out of communist hands, by the use of American sea and air power if necessary, was accepted immediately by our government and public as a matter of policy. Perhaps this policy had existed all along, unavowed. However that may be, the deployment of American forces to defend Formosa would have aroused serious opposition at home prior to the outbreak of war in Korea; after that event it was accepted

almost as a matter of course. Such are the workings of a democracy in the conduct of its foreign relations.

In retrospect we may note with some satisfaction that our government was by no means entirely unprepared for the new responsibilities which it assumed toward Formosa on June 27, 1950. We were already represented here by a Foreign Service establishment, with Armed Services attachés, able to make the necessary political and military arrangements with the Chinese government in a matter of hours. Our small but effective ECA mission was ready to take over the expanded duties implicit in the new responsibilities which we had assumed. The Seventh Fleet was prepared to start its patrols without delay. Perhaps it was in part simply good luck that we found ourselves in a position to undertake these responsibilities so quickly. But there had been thinking and planning too, of the kind which before the event is appropriately labeled "top secret." Discreet advance preparations for such an eventuality furnish a good example of what government officials in various categories can contribute toward making American policies succeed once they are officially implemented.

It was quite clear, however, that sea and air patrols, plus a small-scale economic program, were by no means adequate to the situation which faced us on Formosa in mid-1950. They were at best stopgap measures, and it was becoming increasingly apparent that only a comprehensive medium- to long-term program offered hope of accomplishing what had become an essential feature of American foreign policy: to build up countries which were threatened by communist aggression, both to preserve them as a part of the free world and to discourage the spread of open hostilities. This broad policy, which had found formal acknowledgment in the Truman Doctrine in 1947, was now to be implemented in the Far East.

At this point I should like to explode another myth: that American officials serving abroad are mere messengers, engaged chiefly in transmitting to the local authorities the texts of communications emanating from Washington. Even so well-informed a publication as *Time* recently repeated this legend as a fact,

with the further intimation that the practical value of our officials abroad depended largely upon their ability to obtain local popularity by back-slapping and related methods. I am sure that I do not need to persuade any of you here today of the falseness of this myth. As a matter of fact, the foreign representatives of a democratic government such as ours have incomparably greater opportunities to influence policy than the minions of a dictatorship. We may never be responsible for the determination of basic policy, but in its implementation abroad, in our day-to-day relations with Washington and with the local authorities, our attitudes and approaches often have the greatest significance.

Suppose, for example, the Embassy and the ECA mission had adopted a negative, defeatist attitude toward the problems of Formosa after mid-1950. Suppose we had persuaded ourselves that this was simply another "Operation Rat Hole." Is it not quite likely that we should have inclined our government as a whole toward the same conclusion? As a matter of fact we took a positive approach. . . .

Our present policy toward Formosa is the result of political decisions influenced by military and, to a lesser extent, by economic considerations. This fact becomes clear when we consider what our program probably would be if it were based on purely military factors related to the Korean conflict. Under such circumstances we would have supplied the Chinese government with its most immediate military needs, notably in ammunition and POL, to cope with the relatively moderate sized communist forces which might be able to survive our naval and air attacks and effect landings on the island. Such aid would have been supplemented by sufficient economic support to prevent an increase in disease and unrest. The sum total would have been a minimum program on a short-term basis until the "future of Formosa" could be decided by international agreement.

It is obvious to all, however, that our actual program for Formosa is now on a comprehensive, medium- to long-term basis which foresees making the island economically self-supporting except for such assistance as may be required to maintain a larger-than-normal military establishment until peace and secur-

ity are re-established in the Far East. It is true that funds are voted by Congress only on a fiscal year basis, but the amounts made available during the calendar year 1951, and the programs on which these amounts were based, are the best evidence that the United States in fact has accepted the longer term and more comprehensive view, even though this may not yet have appeared with finality in public policy statements.

Here, then, is another point to watch for in the development of American foreign policy: action not infrequently precedes words. The policy in question may have been in existence all along, but for various reasons was never made the subject of an open commitment by our government. After June 27, 1950, the most significant events in the development of our policy toward Formosa were (1) the allocation of approximately fifty million dollars in equipment and supplies for the Chinese Army on February 16, 1951; (2) the communication to the Chinese government on April 20, 1951, that a MAAG would be established on Formosa; (3) the allocation on June 21, 1951, of nearly forty-two million dollars in additional economic aid to be obligated in the last days of fiscal year 1951; (4) the passage of the Mutual Security appropriations in October, 1951, which included totals based on estimates of some three hundred million dollars in aid for Formosa in the fiscal year 1952.

Such are the tangible factors to note in the development of American foreign policy no less than the public statements of high officials. . . . If such policy development seems at times halting or illogical, we should remember our own duty as government officials to give our best thoughts to what can and should be done in connection with our particular jobs, and to make recommendations through proper channels when we have something constructive to offer. When final decisions are made, of course, it is our simple duty to carry them out to the best of our ability.

☆

Late in 1951 the Department assigned Howard P. Jones as first secretary and, on my recommendation and prior to his arrival early in 1952, raised his designation to that of counselor. The appoint-

compensation payments, the Taiwan Provincial Government had persuaded our squatters to move. We were able to demolish the various ramshackle structures, haul away many tons of junk and rubbish, and complete a masonry wall around the entire area owned by the United States. In due course, a garage, parking lot, and lawn appeared on the land thus vacated. Our chancery might still be the shabbiest in the world, as an Associated Press correspondent once called it in a story, but the property as a whole was at least clean and tidy. Operations became more efficient at the same time.

II

The results of the 1952 elections in the United States were received by the Chinese on Taiwan with quiet gratification, but with no great expectation of a decisive change in foreign policy. The Korean trip of President-elect Eisenhower inevitably started rumors. One of these was that Eisenhower and Chiang Kai-shek were to meet on Wake Island. Another was that the President-elect looked with sympathy upon proposals of Generals Clark and Van Fleet for a major offensive in North Korea to replace stalemate with victory. The first story appeared to be a pure fabrication. As to the second, the 1952 elections had made it apparent that the American public shared with Western European opinion a determination to avoid aggressive action in Korea appreciably to the north of the 38th parallel. Only some new and particularly scandalous act by the communists would have changed this attitude.

One of the last communications received by the Embassy in Taipei from the Department of State before the new administration took office in January, 1953, was a draft paper on United States policy toward the Republic of China. We were asked to comment. It seemed an auspicious moment to raise a number of pointed questions and follow these with recommendations. Excerpts from my reply of February 3, 1953, are given here:

> Although the U.S. military and economic aid program for Formosa in its present expanded form is less than two years old and has been carried out largely on an *ad hoc* basis, its size and scope imply a medium to long-term policy transcending the admitted objectives of defense and containment. In order to

clarify the U.S. position and permit sound planning, therefore, it would be desirable to have answers to the following questions:

a. *For what purposes and on what date or dates does the U.S. wish to have Chinese Nationalist armed forces ready for possible combat other than in defense of Formosa and the Pescadores?* Until recently there has seemed to be no practicable alternative to accepting responsibility for equipping and training of the forces actually existing on Formosa and the Pescadores, within the limits of equipment and supplies available from the U.S. and within the capabilities of the Chinese officers and men at hand. Two years ago the combat efficiency of these forces was such that, despite the large number of men immediately involved (approximately 500,000), all of them were needed for defense. With the substantial improvement in their effectiveness since 1951, however, and in view of the evident necessity for continuing the assurance of American air and naval support in any case, the ground forces on Formosa may be stronger today than is necessary for purely defensive purposes and for maintaining internal order. The margin should be much greater a year hence. (Chinese Nationalist air and naval forces presumably should continue to be considered primarily as supporting elements for the ground forces and should be equipped accordingly.) The possible uses for this resulting strategic reserve, say within the next year or two, require early definition to provide a basis for both military and economic planning during the immediate future.

b. *Does the U.S. wish to assist the government of the Republic of China in expanding production on Formosa so that the island can become self-supporting within, say, four years, except for extraordinary defense expenditures?* This would represent the logical continuation and realization of the economic program actually followed more or less consistently since mid-1951. Economic aid is already so involved with the military program, however, that any significant change in the latter is liable to upset the stability which now obtains, and nullify efforts to increase economic production, unless adequate funds are made available for all necessary purposes.

c. *Does the U.S. wish to make formal commitments to the*

government of the Republic of China, either now or in the foreseeable future, involving the legal status and/or defense of Formosa, or envisaging support in its objective of liberating the China mainland from communism, or for other purposes? The Chinese Nationalists are keenly aware of the fact that while the United States has signed a security pact with the ex-enemy, Japan, no formal and continuing commitment has been made to Nationalist China, either as to the defense of Formosa or as to their legal position with reference to the island. . . . the Nationalists do not exclude the possibility that the U.S. may at some future date favor turning Formosa over to a "trustee" or even to a China mainland regime which had promised to behave. U.S. commitments on these points would help to consolidate the structure of mutual confidence between the U.S. and Nationalist China which has been laboriously re-erected since 1950. The Chinese would, of course, welcome any additional steps by the United States which might support their "return to the mainland."

a. If the answer to the first question above indicates that Chinese Nationalist forces should be made ready for possible combat outside of Formosa, within the foreseeable future, urgent consideration should be given to the following:

1. The delivery of military supplies and equipment, and the staffing of MAAG, should be accelerated and expanded in a manner to permit adequate and timely training and equipment of the units required without unduly weakening the forces which would remain on Formosa for its defense.

2. The responsibilities of MAAG for training and equipment of Chinese Nationalist forces should be extended to units now stationed on Kinmen, Matsu, and Tachen Islands (numbering about 75,000), paralleling present responsibilities for those on Formosa and the Pescadores (about 500,000).

3. In connection with (2), consideration should be given to transferring responsibility for various anti-communist guerrilla activities, as carried on at present from offshore islands, to the regular Chinese Nationalist armed forces and hence to the purview of MAAG. These activities would include blockade duties

and raids, but presumably would not extend to guerrilla operations inland.

4. Equipment, American advisers, and funds should be provided to step up the training of reserves and replacements.

5. It should be borne in mind that of the $102 million allocated for "economic aid" to Formosa during the fiscal year 1953, less than 23 per cent is for capital goods to expand production and for technical assistance, while nearly two-thirds of the total goes directly and indirectly for the support of the large military establishment required to defend the island. The remaining 10 to 11 per cent is for consumer goods to balance Formosa's international payments. Any increase in the military program, therefore, should be accompanied by adequate expansion of economic support for such increase, leaving intact the funds needed for balancing international payments and for such technical assistance and capital investment as may be considered desirable.

6. In arriving at totals for economic support of the military program, provision should be made for better pay and allowances, particularly in the case of officers and men who have families, as essential to maintaining morale.

If, on the other hand, the U.S. wishes the Chinese Nationalist armed forces to continue to play an almost purely defensive role, then the military aid program should be re-examined immediately in that light and urgent consideration should be given as to how the government of the Republic of China might be reconciled to such an objective.

b. The U.S. should determine whether it wishes to support something along the lines of the Chinese government's Four-Year Plan (1953-56, inclusive) to make Formosa economically self-supporting, which foresees the need for U.S. economic aid of approximately $250 million during that period. Actually, this figure includes a substantial amount (around $100 million) for imports of consumer goods which would serve the dual purpose of helping to balance international payments and at the same time provide local currency (counterpart funds) for direct support of the military program and for balancing the

national budget deficit resulting from other outlays for defense. In any event, the continuation of the most modest military and economic aid program will require the balancing of international payments and of the national budget, as well as better compensation for civilian employees as well as military. Only on capital investment and technical assistance, totaling perhaps $75 million for the four years, would any saving be possible in the economic field.

c. Early consideration is recommended of U.S. desires as to bilateral or multilateral agreements affecting the government of the Republic of China and/or Formosa. The absence of any formal and continuing U.S. commitment makes all programs and policies of a tentative and possibly temporary nature. Political, military, and economic relations are influenced accordingly. The Chinese Nationalists feel that they must continue to plan for the eventuality, however remote it may seem at present, that the U.S. may again leave them on their own at a crucial moment. Under such conditions the mutual confidence necessary to full cooperation evidently is lacking, private investment is discouraged or prevented from assisting in economic recovery, and future planning often seems academic.

The basic decision to be made, of course, is whether U.S. policy toward Free China is to be static or dynamic, neutral or positive; whether Formosa is simply a strategically important island which should be denied to the communists or an important factor which can be helped to play a significant part in the eventual liberation of mainland China from communist rule. The Iron Curtain in Asia will either move forward or back. Dynamic communism will use every means to push it forward; only a dynamic free world can push it back. To what extent does the U.S. wish to encourage the use of the considerable potential of Formosa and the Chinese Nationalist government to that end?

III

Early in February I was instructed by the Department to inform President Chiang that the Seventh Fleet would no longer be used to shield communist China from attack by forces based on Taiwan.

This problem had plagued our relations with the Chinese ever since the "neutralization" order issued at the outbreak of the Korean War in connection with the Fleet's mission to protect Taiwan. It continued to plague us long after the Korean Armistice in 1953, and to produce thousands of bitter words, spoken and written, all over the world, most of them beside the point.

The facts in the case were quite simple, and the considerations primarily political rather than military. The armed forces of the Republic of China were in no position to conduct more than hit-and-run raids on the China mainland, whether in 1950 or in subsequent years, without American logistic and other support, including sea transport. In return for our willingness to assist in the defense of Taiwan—shortly afterward extended to include Penghu, or the Pescadores—the Chinese government was quite prepared to forego any and all offensive action against the communists for an indefinite period after the outbreak of hostilities in Korea. From a diplomatic standpoint it would have been desirable to seek mutual agreement before directing the Seventh Fleet to defend Taiwan. But events were moving rapidly in mid-1950, and information on enemy dispositions was scanty. In any case, the government on Taiwan had proffered its agreement immediately in a manner intended to give the appearance of bilateral rather than unilateral action.

The amendment to the Seventh Fleet's directive, issued about the first of February, 1953, ending any protection for the communist-held mainland, again was unilateral. It had been reported extensively and accurately in the press before instructions reached me to inform the Chinese. Our position in Formosa remained basically unchanged, owing to the tangible factors which continued to govern; but the Chinese, not unnaturally, interpreted our step as suggesting the possibility of American support for offensive action on their part. To minimize the danger of any misunderstanding, I therefore took the occasion of my call on President Chiang to ask that no such action be initiated by his armed forces, particularly if aircraft or armor were involved, without consulting the senior American military officer on Taiwan, General Chase. He readily agreed. To this extent was the Chinese government "unleashed"—unfortunate word—and a moment later, "neutralized" once more.

The Chinese on Taiwan followed with interest the "Captive Peo-

ples" resolution in the United States Congress, which was to represent disavowal by the United States of commitments permitting the "enslavement" of other peoples. The Tehran, Yalta, and Potsdam conferences had been cited in this connection, and Yalta was a fighting word in China. An American policy envisaging the "liberation of captive peoples," even though "peaceful means" were specified, suggested new initiatives against Red-held China. Hence, the eventual shelving of the resolution was a disappointment to Free China.

IV

The next major problem in United States-Chinese relations involved the "Kuomintang troops in Burma." Again, a great deal was said and written which provoked ill feeling and distrust between Free China and its friends; and again, much of what attracted public attention was either grossly exaggerated or quite beside the point. A few essential facts may be given here.

While much larger numbers of Chinese national troops were retreating into Indochina before the advancing communists, some regular units, totaling perhaps two to three thousand men, withdrew into the Shan states of northeastern Burma. They formed part of a far larger refugee movement of Chinese into Burmese territory from 1949 to 1951; some estimates placed the total figure as high as 50,000. This efflux took place in one of the wildest and most remote parts of the world. No established authority existed in large areas on both sides of the frontier. In fact, the location of the border itself was in question. A Chinese commission sent to study the matter after World War II had simply disappeared. Certainly, the simple and illiterate people in the area were unaware of any need for passports and visas to cross a frontier of which they were barely conscious. Nor was there any awareness of an ethnographic line to the southwest of which people were "Burmese."

This refugee movement was simply another southward flow of people from China in response to pressure from the north, such as had occurred from time to time over many centuries. Coming into a sparsely settled region with little or no constituted authority, it was inevitable that considerable numbers of men should attach themselves in some way to the Chinese military units there, at the same time trying to make a living as best they could. The leaders of these

victions in case the organization takes the wrong road despite our best efforts.

VII

Developments since the Korean Armistice had further confirmed me in the opinion that only by a formal treaty of mutual defense could we expect to maintain among our Chinese friends the morale essential to a long-term program of cooperation. United States support for Free China in the event of military attack or similar threat to its existence was implicit in our actions since mid-1950. Our legal position, however, was unilateral. The aid and support we were giving could be terminated at any time, however unlikely such a reversal of policy might appear. I was convinced that only by a formal bilaterial agreement, which need not go beyond what the United States actually would do in any case, could optimum results be expected from our large-scale aid to the Republic of China.

I knew that the Chinese had been studying our recently initialed treaty of mutual defense with Korea and the text of our earlier agreement with the Philippines. They were keenly aware of the negotiations for a similar treaty between the United States and Japan, which opened in Tokyo in July, 1953. One day the Chinese Foreign Minister remarked to me that they had prepared a draft for a bilateral treaty with the United States, following rather closely the provisions of the Philippine-American agreement. I suggested that their ambassador in Washington give a copy to the Department of State. This was done in October, 1953. Although formal negotiations began several months later, the project of a treaty of mutual defense began to take form from that time.

VIII

In contrast to the custom of earlier years, Taipei was now on the regular route for American officials touring the Far East. Almost every week brought at least one planeload of important civilian or military officers, many of whom had never seen the island before. The most important of these visits in 1953 was that of Vice President and Mrs. Richard M. Nixon. They remained for five days and followed a most strenuous schedule.

I had never met the Vice President and was uncertain how the

the principal officers of the Departments of State and Defense. All of the topics that had occupied us during recent months in Taiwan were reviewed and reviewed again.

In looking over my Washington schedule later, I seemed to be thumbing through the pages of *Who's Who in America*. On one occasion, Admiral Radford and I were the only "outsiders" at a luncheon given by Senator H. Alexander Smith in the Capitol, where thirteen members of the Senate Foreign Relations Committee and eleven members of the Armed Services Committee were present.

The Chinese and all friends of China were greatly heartened at this time by the strong stand taken by both our Senate and House of Representatives. On July 15 the House unanimously adopted a resolution reiterating its opposition to seating Red China in the United Nations and supporting President Eisenhower "in his expressed determination to use all means to prevent such representation." Two weeks later the Senate took equivalent action in approving the foreign aid appropriation bill, by unanimous vote, with a declaration opposing United Nations membership for communist China.

XVI

Eventually I returned to Maine for a week with my father and then took off by air for the Far East. Pauline met me in Tokyo, and we went to Nikko for a few days' rest. Looking from our hotel windows across the valley at the magnificent cryptomeria forest surrounding the Tokugawa Shrine, I was at last able to ponder with some detachment the experience of recent weeks. Here are a few extracts from notes drafted at Nikko and later sent to the Department:

> Washington opinion appeared to share that of the Chinese in Formosa that recent developments in Indochina represented a severe defeat for the free world. The loss of Tonkin to the communists, with its highly productive delta and its large population including many thousand Chinese, is looked upon as sufficiently serious. But more important is the psychological effect upon all Asia of seeing militant communism again on the march and the free world in retreat. Of course, the Chinese Nationalists might gain some satisfaction from being able to say, "We told

you so." For several years they have predicted that the communists would gain control of all Indochina—without open participation of Chinese communist forces—and eventually all of Southeast Asia and more, unless the United States and France adopted other policies. But any such sense of self-congratulation on Formosa is more than offset by alarm over so obvious an example of the widening gap between communist and noncommunist strength in East and South Asia. Particular concern is felt over the effect on neutralist thinking in Japan, and on fence-sitters everywhere. . . .

The Chinese government on Formosa does not expect an American commitment, either direct or implied, to sponsor its return to the mainland. Rather, it seeks a confirmation of United States intent to assist in the defense of Formosa on a longer term basis, if only by implication, than has so far been admitted. No less important to the Chinese would be the political support implicit in a bilateral pact, irrespective of its exact provisions, which would place them on a par with Japan and Korea in this respect. The Chinese firmly believe that a pact with the United States is prerequisite to their inclusion in any regional security arrangement for the Western Pacific. Without it they would not have the "face" or influence necessary to deal with Japan and Korea. . . .

President Chiang has therefore expressed his willingness, in return for a bilateral treaty, to forego any offensive operations against the communists to which the United States might object.

While in the United States, I noted a revival of suggestions that a line be drawn over which the communists could step only with the certainty that they would be met by armed force. Such action doubtless is appropriate in certain circumstances. Under other conditions it may prove a serious handicap. . . .

In certain regions . . . a defense "line" probably should be indicated only in terms of a general area. The islands in Nationalist hands along the China coast opposite Formosa are a case in point. It is highly desirable that they be kept out of communist control, yet the United States presumably should not commit itself in advance to war with Red China over, say, White Dog Island. Public statements and military action in such con-

nection should be calculated to deter the enemy from aggression to the maximum degree possible without involving unnecessary advance commitments by the United States. . . .

During my recent visit to Washington I was impressed by gloomy predictions from many sides that we were now about to lose the rest of Asia to the communists. With this I disagreed, pointing out that in all probability we should be at war again in the Far East long before communism had taken over completely in that region. . . .

Under the circumstances, I said that the most important and urgent practical step for the United States was to give offensive capabilities to reliable anti-communist Asian ground forces. Eventually Japan, and to a much smaller degree the Philippines, could contribute in this connection. Something might be done in Southeast Asia as well, but none of these areas would have significant military strength in the immediate and vital future. Only Korea and Free China could produce quick results in the form of ground forces which, with American air, naval, and logistic support, could defeat communist China if war should come. Moreover, I believed that the early creation of such anti-communist Asian strength offered the best hope of avoiding another large-scale war in the Far East. No more effective way could be found of influencing developments behind the Curtain. And if war should come anyway, we would be ready.

Influenced apparently by our experience with President Rhee, I noted some concern in Washington lest our Asian friends misuse such offensive power as we might give them and thereby involve us in unnecessary hostilities. I pointed out that not only could we obtain commitments in this connection but that we also should retain in our hands the means to enforce them, such as through the control of ammunition and supplies in general, as well as the possibility of withholding essential air and naval support. In any case, I pointed out that the Soviets had given their satellites offensive power and seemed able to exercise effective control. If we were unable to do the same with our friends, then the future of our country was dark indeed and our entire foreign aid policy should be reconsidered. . . .

It has been widely assumed that the Chinese Nationalist

forces on Formosa and nearby islands possess substantial offensive capabilities. This, of course, is not true. Conceivably they could transport, with their own facilities, one division at most for operations outside the area now under their control. The Nationalist military establishment today is, basically, that which happened to be located on Formosa and several small islands when the Korean War broke out in 1950. These forces have since been reorganized and given additional training and equipment. They have received only about half of the equipment programmed for them on the basis of their size. In effect, therefore, although perhaps twice as large in numbers as would be necessary for a purely defensive mission on Formosa and the Pescadores, the Chinese Nationalist Army is little more than half equipped. Nevertheless, this army, along with the Chinese Air Force and Navy, constitute the best balanced anti-communist military force in the Far East.

Potentially, the Chinese Nationalist military establishment could be given very considerable offensive capabilities within the critical period of the next one to three years. Good manpower is available on Formosa to increase the present establishment of about 625,000 by at least 50 per cent, in the form of ready reserves or otherwise. When fully equipped and trained, this force could provide up to three Chinese field armies of 150,000 men each for overseas operations, and still leave one field army behind for defense. Such an expeditionary force would be supported by relatively small but efficient Chinese air and naval forces. Obviously, however, so large an operation would be dependent upon American logistic support, as well as the provision of any necessary United States air and naval assistance.

A Chinese military establishment such as that just described presumably would have the capability of defeating any force which the communists could support in South China within the next few years. Similarly, the Koreans probably could be given the capability of at least pinning down any force which the communists could support in North Korea while engaged with the Nationalists in the south. Under such circumstances, American naval and air power could be decisive in defeating communist China without committing United States ground forces.

"Would the Formosans fight on the mainland against the Chinese communists?" This question has been asked frequently, since three-fourths of the manpower on the island is Formosan. No definitive answer can be given before the event, but experience and facts are available for a reasonably confident estimate.

The population of Formosa is over 98 per cent Chinese, of whom nearly 80 per cent were born on the island and are therefore called Formosans. A majority of the latter were born under Japanese rule but have retained their predominantly Chinese characteristics: language, customs, etc. The chief distinctions between the average inhabitant of Formosa and of the China mainland today are that the former is in better physical condition, has had more education, and enjoys a higher living standard. Basically, Formosans are simply the Chinese of one of the provinces of China.

Past experience has shown that Chinese soldiers from Manchuria sometimes fought well in South China and sometimes badly. Cantonese have at times distinguished themselves on the battlefields of Central and North China; sometimes they have not done so. In either case, the explanation appears to lie in the quality of leadership, training, and equipment rather than in place of birth. It seems reasonable to assume that the same considerations would apply to Formosans. . . .

Given sufficient time, it is to be anticipated that under communist rule mainland China will build a military machine powerful enough to overawe any and all of its neighbors. On a comparatively short-term basis this development can be offset in large part by sufficient American aid to Formosa and Korea. Unhappily, there is little prospect of correspondingly adequate accomplishments in Japan. Assuming, then, that no major war will intervene, what kind of a Japan does the United States envisage, economically and militarily, three, or five, or ten years hence? A reasonably adequate answer to this question is prerequisite to corresponding answers for Formosa and Korea.

The plain fact seems to be that no satisfactory long-term solution is available for the military and economic problems of Japan, Korea, and Formosa as long as mainland China stays

in communist hands. Only when Japan can resume her appropriate economic role on the China mainland—obviously impossible under communism—and when the threat of military aggression in East Asia can be at least substantially reduced, would it appear that a healthy economic and social life can develop in the Western Pacific without massive and continuing American military and economic aid.

As regards Chinese representation in the United Nations, the Secretary's July 8 statement to the press was excellent and should serve as a basis for any further official pronouncements on the subject. . . . Along the lines of the Secretary's statement, the United States might eventually find it necessary to indicate its willingness to consider a revision of the Charter which would make the United Nations a truly universal body, but it could be pointed out forcefully at the same time that the experience of recent years amply proved the futility of expecting such a body to foster collective security.

In the case of China, it is not impossible that a government may come into power on the mainland with which the United States could develop satisfactory relations. There is no present indication of such an event, and it would be a serious mistake to expect it. But the possibility should not be excluded. How, then, can it be determined whether a sufficiently profound change of regime has taken place? Vice President Nixon suggested, "When they stop being Communists." President Chiang Kai-shek once proposed, "When the Iron Curtain has been rolled up." Certainly, until some such drastic change has taken place the United States must exert the greatest care neither to give comfort to the Peiping communists nor to undermine the position of the government on Formosa.

Possibly the determination as to whether a new Chinese regime can be dealt with in normal fashion will appear from its attitude toward the government now established on Formosa. General Marshall's mission was soundly conceived with one important exception: it overlooked the nature of all that communism had come to mean. An honorable regime on the mainland, genuinely devoted to peace and the welfare of humanity, should

have no great difficulty in coming to terms with the government of the Republic of China which the United States continues to recognize.

Unfortunately, the great encouragement given to the Chinese Nationalists and others by public statements such as that of the Secretary on July 8 is largely vitiated by other authoritative pronouncements from time to time which include qualifying phrases such as "under the circumstances," or, "for the time being." American assurances have thus come to be looked on by the Chinese as little more than reprieves; they have come to regard the eventual American acceptance of the Peiping regime as even probable. Thus, the "two Chinas" scheme would come first, followed by the withering away of the government on Formosa unless a general war should intervene. Hence the great interest of the Nationalists in a bilateral treaty with the United States which would extend, at least by strong implication, longer than "for the time being."

The larger aim of liberation obviously must be handled with circumspection, but there is no evident reason why the United States should evade this issue. Certainly the communists have not been shy about announcing their goals, and they have gained strength in the process. While assuring the rest of the free world that the United States does not intend to initiate a war in the interest of liberating enslaved peoples, or for any other purpose, it is essential also to avoid reassuring the enemy that he need have no fears whatever. . . .

In the particular case of China, it would seem wise for the United States at the present time neither to underwrite nor to exclude the return to the China mainland of the Nationalist Government now on Formosa. It should be sufficient in a political sense for the United States to share with that government the desire that China should be united under a democratic, stable, peaceful regime, genuinely anxious to maintain friendly relations with the free world. No communist regime would meet these qualifications.

XVII

On September 3, 1954, only a few days after our return to Taipei,

to convince friend and foe alike that freedom, not communism, is the wave of the future and that it will surely triumph. . . .

v

The above despatch was followed by yet another, which was to be my final effort, in a long series, to sum up United States policy toward China. The date was April 25, 1957, but the substantive portion differed in no significant degree from that of my despatch of six years earlier (see Consolidation, pages 101–4). Selections that supplement the earlier despatch are given here:

> There is need for a new and comprehensive statement of American policy toward China in form suitable for publication. Many aspects of this broad and complex subject have been dealt with in authoritative public pronouncements during recent years; nevertheless, otherwise well-informed people in the United States and abroad often appear confused when discussing a course of action affecting China, even when the individuals in question are disposed to be objective. As a result, American policy toward China is variously described as weak, narrow, captious, emotional, irresponsible, bellicose, legalistic, petulant, vindictive, or sterile. Perhaps the most frequent charge still is that the United States has "no policy" toward China. These adjectives suggest that significant developments in the past are easily forgotten, and that almost everyone finds it difficult to draw a line between policy and strategy, or between strategy and tactics. . . .
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> United States policy toward China is essentially simple and unchanging. Under existing circumstances, the strategy demanded by that policy derives almost entirely from the necessity of confronting the world menace of communism. Only the tactics involved are necessarily somewhat complex and subject to change in the light of developing events and of American commitments elsewhere in the world.
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> Ever since the United States began to exert an important influence in the Western Pacific, late in the nineteenth century, its policy has supported the administrative and territorial integrity of China. The United States has opposed the creation of

spheres of influence in China by outside powers; it never held or sought colonial possessions on the mainland of Asia. As its closest ally, the United States played a predominant part in defeating China's enemy in World War II, and in 1943 voluntarily relinquished the extraterritorial rights and privileges in China which it had enjoyed along with other powers.

In 1945, after eight years of war and fearful human and material losses, the Republic of China found itself victorious but economically prostrate. The most populous and productive areas of the country has been occupied for many years by enemy forces. Communications—never highly developed over the enormous area of China—were chaotic. Food was woefully scarce; industry and trade were all but stagnant. Currency inflation had reached an explosive stage, and the means to bring it under early control were lacking. Nevertheless, with the economic and other aid extended by the United States in that period, the Republic of China, like other countries whose territories had been overrun by the enemy, unquestionably would have surmounted its postwar difficulties if the Soviets had permitted.

Shortly before the war ended, the Chinese and Soviet governments signed a thirty-year Treaty of Friendship and Alliance on August 14, 1945. The Treaty provided, among other things, for mutual assistance in the war until victory was won, for "close and friendly collaboration" thereafter in peace, for "mutual respect" of each other's "sovereignty and territorial integrity," for "non-interference" in the other's internal affairs, and for mutual "economic assistance in the post-war period." The Soviet plenipotentiary, Molotov, at the same time handed the Chinese a note assuring them that, in carrying out the Treaty, the Soviets would give China "moral support and assist her with military supplies and other material resources, it being understood that this support will go exclusively to the National Government as the central government of China."

The Republic of China subsequently introduced a draft resolution before the United Nations, dealing with the conduct of the Soviet Union in relation to the 1945 Treaty, and on February 1, 1952, the General Assembly announced its findings. These were that the U.S.S.R. had obstructed the efforts of the Na-

tional Government of China in re-establishing Chinese national authority in Manchuria after the end of the war in 1945, and gave military and economic aid to the Chinese communists against the National Government; also that, in general, the Soviets had failed to carry out the 1945 Treaty with China. The United States supported that resolution.

Defeated on the field of battle in Korea, with United States forces once more playing a predominant role, the communists sought an armistice. One was signed on July 15, 1953, after protracted negotiations, which the Reds have since violated continuously and flagrantly in many ways. An essential provision of the armistice was that it would continue until a political settlement had been reached. No such settlement has been possible, however, owing to the refusal of the communists to consider any terms which the United Nations or the Republic of Korea could possibly accept. A state of unresolved conflict exists, therefore, between the United States and communist China. All trade and financial transactions with Red China are prohibited by United States laws and regulations. Travel in enemy territory invariably is denied to United States citizens in time of war, and communist China cannot be considered as other than enemy territory.

Meanwhile, the government of the Republic of China established a temporary seat on Taiwan early in 1950. More than half a million men of its armed forces were evacuated from the China mainland, and over a million civilians chose life on Taiwan in preference to communist rule. These included many prominent leaders in government, both civil and military, and also large numbers of outstanding personalities from professional and business life. Of the 760 members of the Legislative Yuan popularly elected from all parts of China in 1948, no less than 540 came to Taiwan to continue their constitutional duties.

The repair of war damage and the general economic development of the island were expedited with the transfer of the National Government to Taiwan. The armed forces were reorganized and their training intensified. Other than for the defense establishment, the various agencies of the central government were reduced to skeleton proportions for their sojourn on

Taiwan, and a maximum of responsibility for internal affairs was left with the regular provincial authorities. By 1951, expanded United States aid, both military and economic, was playing a major role in Taiwan and nearby islands, often referred to collectively as Free China.

United States support for its long-time friend and ally, the Republic of China, was placed on a definitive basis by the signature of a Mutual Defense Treaty on December 2, 1954, which received the overwhelming approval of the United States Senate. The Treaty commits the United States to assist in the defense of Taiwan against aggression, following the pattern of earlier agreements with the Philippines, Japan, and Korea. By 1957 the re-equipped military establishment of Free China once more constituted a large and vital part of the free world's might in the Western Pacific. Taiwan became indeed a position of strength, where United States military bases were unnecessary; the substantial military capabilities of Free China itself constituted an important deterrent to Red aggression elsewhere in East Asia.

In economic and social fields, an evolutionary land reform was accomplished on Taiwan after 1950. Living standards rose far higher and economic production expanded more rapidly than in Red China or in most other Asian countries. Notable progress was made in education and public health, to levels all but unprecedented in Asia. Last but not least, communist subversion was brought under control without imposing excessive limitations on personal liberty. With any internal Red influences thus largely eliminated on Taiwan, the government of the Republic of China was able to accomplish, with the United States assistance, what the Soviet Union had prevented on the mainland of China.

Free China ranks among the more populous half of the members of the United Nations, which the government of the Republic of China has supported faithfully since its creation. The United States feels a deep loyalty to Free China and its government, which remained faithful to the Allied cause throughout the darkest days of World War II, and in the light of all available evidence the government now seated on Taiwan is far more

representative of the Chinese people than the Red regime in Peiping.

Popular support is difficult to measure in a communist police state, but there is no reason to believe that the Peiping regime enjoys the loyalty of more than the usual small fraction of the population on which Red regimes elsewhere place genuine reliance. A highly significant indication was given by nearly 20,000 Chinese soldiers captured by United Nations forces in Korea; three-quarters of them chose to come to Taiwan rather than return to the communist mainland where they were born. Among more than ten million overseas Chinese, particularly in Southeast Asia, the government on Taiwan has retained the loyalty of a surprisingly large percentage, certainly including a majority of the better educated and more influential persons, despite the colossal handicap of its military defeat on the mainland in 1949 and the fact that these overseas Chinese have almost no traditional connection with Taiwan itself.

On one issue the government on Taiwan and the communists on the mainland are in full agreement: there cannot be two Chinas. A great people like the Chinese will never accept the permanent mutilation of their country. This only reinforces the conclusion that there can be no genuine lasting peace in Asia while half a billion Chinese remain under communist rule. Peace will remain in jeopardy and freedom a word of mockery until a reunited China joins the free world. Lenin said that the road to Paris lay through Peiping. In any case, China is half of Asia and Asia is half the world. The fate of China may well determine the fate of all.

At this point I endeavored to sum up in two sentences what I described as "enduring United States policy"—the only policy deserving of the name:

The United States foresees a new China united in freedom, under a government enjoying wide popular support, freed of foreign domination, and fulfilling its international obligations as a peaceful and friendly member of the family of nations. Within the framework of its world-wide commitments, including

the United Nations Charter, the United States will do everything in its power to bring about these conditions in China.

In two additional sentences I tried to indicate the general nature of our strategy in confronting and counterbalancing the Red menace in East Asia:

> In support of its policy toward China, the United States contributes to the military, economic and political strength of like-minded countries in East Asia, and specifically the Republic of China established temporarily on the bastion and rallying-point of Taiwan, with the purpose of producing a continuous improvement in the position of the free world relative to the communist regimes in that region. The United States will pursue this strategy until all China is again under the effective control of a Chinese government possessing the qualifications sought by American policy.

With this brief summary of what I considered to be our policy and strategy, I went on to describe in more detail what often was called American "policy," but actually should be termed current tactics:

> Since United States strategy demands a continuous improvement in the relative position of the free world, Red China's entry into the United Nations would require new and heroic tactics to compensate for the prestige, influence, and power which the communists would gain with the seating of their second most important state in the world organization. Such a prospect, together with the inevitable weakening of the United Nations itself which would result from accepting into membership a powerful and unrepentant aggressor dedicated to the goal of communist world domination, warrants every possible exertion on the part of the United States to exclude Red China from the world body. Should Peiping be seated in the end, the United States would have no choice but to redress the balance in favor of its national interest and that of friends and allies who share actively in confronting the communist menace in East Asia. The temper of the Congress, on the various occasions when the

antecedents of this question have been considered, leaves no doubt that the action eventually taken would reflect in full measure the unswerving determination of the United States to pursue its basic strategy to a successful end. Such action should eliminate once and for all the remotest possibility of American recognition for the communist regime in Peiping.

In the military field, the United States Navy commands the seas in the Western Pacific, including the approaches to countries which it is committed to defend, such as Free China. The Air Force and Navy maintain air strength and mobility in the region sufficient to establish air superiority over vital areas on short notice, in addition to possessing general supremacy in nuclear capabilities. Military aid programs assist countries of the free world in East Asia to maintain internal order and to provide in varying degrees for self-defense, according to their abilities and willingness. In the Republic of China and Korea, the two East Asian allies of the United States willing and able to maintain armed forces with capabilities beyond those of pure defense, substantial aid is provided to maintain highly trained and well-equipped military establishments of over 600,000 men in each country. These forces, together with those of the United States, substantially counter-balance communist military strength in East Asia. Such a balance is a basic and minimum requirement.

United States economic programs are designed to support the defense effort of friendly and allied countries, and to promote their economic development. A modest but steady rise in living standards is sought, such as to maintain at all times in Free China and other free countries of East Asia a level appreciably above that of communist China. The ultimate goal, when peace and security are attained and military burdens eased in consequence, is that the free nations should be able to support themselves.

It should be noted, however, that United States strategy calls for improving the *relative* positon of the free nations. The essential corollary to economic aid to allies, therefore, is the denial or limiting of offsetting benefits to the communist regimes which threaten those allies. Existing trade between the free

world and Red China, and any further relaxation of restrictions on such trade, obviously serve to undermine basic United States strategy. Purely economic factors are of secondary importance in the well-established communist trade pattern; normal commercial exchanges are held to a minimum, while strategic and political advantages remain the primary goals. While the financial benefit to communist China of increased trade with the free world would be at least as important as to the supplying countries, political and other advantages to the Reds would be far greater and with no compensating gain for the supporters of United States strategy.

The most serious result of relaxing trade restrictions in Red China, however, would be the political effect throughout East Asia. Communists everywhere would gain in influence and arrogance by so clear a demonstration of Red China's ability to attain its ends without atoning for past and continuing crimes, while the free world would be made to appear blind to its fate and interested only in immediate financial profit. If feasible, it doubtless would be cheaper and certainly less hazardous to compensate free world traders for any benefits they might gain from deals with communist China rather than to expand United States aid programs and commitments sufficiently to offset prospective Red gains from such trade. The whole question, of course, is in large measure beyond the power of the United States to control except for the maintenance of a total embargo on any trade of its own with communist China. However, friendly countries and others are left in no doubt that the United States also favors strong, effective multilateral controls on commercial exchanges with the Chinese communists. A modest reduction in their trade is not too much to ask as a contribution from its friends toward the tremendous military and economic burdens which the United States carries for the benefit of the free world in East Asia.

The criterion of relative advantage evidently should be applied also to cultural exchanges and to all travel on the China mainland. Permitting American correspondents and others to visit communist China would give the American public a certain amount of information in addition to the considerable volume already available from other sources, including objective indi-

viduals of various nationalities. It is improbable, however, that Americans would be permitted to learn appreciably more on the China mainland than European and Asian observers already there. A police state such as Red China has unrivaled means of controlling the movements of an individual and what he sees and hears, without being at all obvious about it.

Certainly the Peiping communists would never ask American correspondents and others to visit mainland China if they did not feel quite able to handle the situation to their own advantage. So far from reflecting on the objectivity of the Americans concerned, communist methods would capitalize on the genuineness of that objectivity. Thus the more experienced American observers would be expected to report both the good and what they were able to learn and send out of the bad, while others would be counted on to accept enough of what they were told to produce a total picture favorable to the Peiping regime.

Again, however, the immediate practical results of permitting American citizens to visit communist China would be less significant than the political or psychological effect throughout East Asia and elsewhere. As in the case of trade, relaxation of restrictions on travel to a country which practices the holding of American citizens as political hostages, and otherwise brazenly flouts the accepted rules of decent international conduct, would be hailed as evidence that United States policy had changed from firm confrontation to tacit accommodation. The encouragement thus given to the communists would be scarcely less damaging to United States interests than the concurrent disillusionment of its Asian friends and allies. . . .

Some day the international communist conspiracy will be exorcised. The Red menace in East Asia and elsewhere will disappear, whether by evolution, revolution, or war, piecemeal or otherwise. The only substantial alternative would be a free world surrender on the installment plan. The United States plans neither for defeat nor surrender, but for success and victory. By exploiting to the full all measures short of war, while maintaining a background of adequate military strength, there is a reasonable chance of eventual success without resort to armed conflict. Any significant yielding in this process by the

free world in Asia, however, would suggest unwillingness or inability to learn from the endless record of communist perfidy and dedication to global conquest. If so, then the so-called free world would scarcely deserve to survive. The United States intends that it shall survive and that China, a quarter of mankind, shall have full opportunity to share in a better, freer future for humanity.

VI

Less than one month later, on May 24, 1957, the sacking of the American Embassy in Taipei took place. I was glad that my recent despatches on policy toward China had been completed and forwarded. In the weeks and months following the riot we were far too busy with other matters to prepare lengthy political reports. Moreover, the atmosphere for some time was not conducive to objective thought. By fall, however, we were once more functioning in our refurbished chancery. Despite our sobering experience, we could say in retrospect that the American effort in Free China had suffered no permanent damage. In fact, much good had been salvaged from what had seemed at the time an unholy mess. Our policy and strategy remained unchanged, and no significant modification of tactics had been required.

On September 12, Under Secretary of State Christian A. Herter, accompanied by Mrs. Herter and Ambassador (former Congressman) James P. Richards, arrived in Taipei for a visit of two days. The occasion was used to review the May 24 riot and its aftermath, as well as to discuss broader aspects of our effort in Free China. There was a useful conference with President Chiang. I thought that the visit went off very well indeed.

At this time our Consulate General in Hong Kong prepared a thoughtful paper on American policy toward that colony. My comments were put in a letter of September 15 to Consul Thomas P. Dillon:

> Let me say that I find myself virtually in complete agreement with your strictures. Our policy toward Hong Kong has long been kept in the "too-hard file," for reasons which have never seemed valid to me. To consider Hong Kong as a problem apart